

SYNTACTICAL PECULIARITIES OF RELATIVE CLAUSES IN THE ARMENIAN NEW TESTAMENT*

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This paper endeavours to show that, at least as far as the syntax of relative clauses is concerned, the form of the Armenian language employed in the Bible translation does not fully correspond to that found in non-translated Armenian literature.

It will be shown that, as argued by LAFONTAINE AND COULIE (1983), next to Classical and Hellenising Armenian, we must construe a pre-Hellenising layer of the language. This layer, it is argued, is not to be separated from the Yunaban Dproc'; instead, both form part of a continuum of Greek influence on Armenian. This is evident in the applicability of different case matching restrictions in Biblical texts compared to the works of Agat'angelos, Eznik, and Elišē, specifically in free and light-headed relative clauses. The case of the relative pronoun in Greek relative clauses can be determined by the matrix clause in Biblical Armenian, whereas in non-translated literature such structures do generally not occur.

It will further be argued that cases of Armenian 'relative attraction' present almost exclusively in free relative clauses; taking as its basis patterns put forward by GROSU (1994) and KEENAN AND COMRIE (1977), these cases of attraction, together with evidence from Greek, will be taken as indication for the existence of what may be called Discourse Accessibility Hierarchy.

Keywords: relative clauses, syntax, Hellenising School, historical linguistics, Classical Armenian

0 Classical Armenian is traditionally taken as the literary language into which the Armenian Bible was translated in the beginning of the 5th century CE. This view has been cautiously questioned by WEITENBERG (1993) and more rigorously challenged by COWE (1994-5) in the recent past due to the nature of the translated text. MEILLET adumbrates what later has been proven more thoroughly: 'Die Übersetzung der heiligen Schrift ist ja ganz sklavisches ... die Struktur der Sätze kann immer von den fremden Sprachen beeinflusst worden sein' (1913:3). BOLOGNESI (2000b:281) goes so far

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as to be surprised at certain irregularities in the Armenian translations, where only occasionally phrases are simplified or translated *ad sensum*, since ‘la traduzione armena del Vangelo mostra chiaramente una singolare aderenza lessicale al testo greco’.

It seems, therefore, that the traditional Mekhitarist stratification needs to be revisited; as WEITENBERG points out it is mainly by considering the development of syntactic features that changes and differences between the various stages of the Armenian language can be observed (1993:24-5); this study endeavours to do so with respect to relative clauses.

Its focus will lie on case attraction phenomena in relative clauses and the influence exerted by Greek, demonstrating that certain Greek syntagmata have yielded idiosyncratic renditions in the Armenian translation. It will be argued that, as far as relative clauses are concerned, it may be necessary to separate Biblical Armenian syntax from that of literature originally composed in the language since both obey different constraints; in this vein, it may be worth reconsidering the stratification of Classical Armenian, esp. as regards the role of the so-called Hellenising School.

§1 presents the primary New Testament corpus used for the study, and elaborates on statistical data concerning relative clauses; it will briefly recount the general function of and issues with relative clauses in Armenian, going on to show that, amongst other things, Jensen’s judgements with respect to the grammaticality of case attraction in Armenian (1959:210) may need to be called into question as they stand.

§2 uses evidence from a secondary corpus of texts originally composed in Armenian to corroborate that the Bible translation does indeed exhibit syntactical rules different from those of other Armenian texts. Differences in treatment of similar syntactic situations will be shown and explained along with issues arising from that corpus.

§3 considers the implications of this study on the question of Greek influence on early Armenian in general, while §4 gives an explanation of the phenomenon encountered in a linguistic context.

1 The Armenian relative clauses (RC) found in the New Testament are of various origins.¹ While the majority of them, c. 75%, is directly parallel to Greek RCs, a significant number derives from different constructions: phrases consisting of article and participle are regularly rendered as RCs

¹ The following abbreviations will be used: RC, relative clause; RPro, relative pronoun; DP, determiner phrase; VP, verb phrase; XP, any phrase; CP, complementiser phrase; DP-Ptcp, determiner phrase with embedded participial noun phrase; DP-Adv, determiner phrase with embedded adverbial phrase; AdjP, adjective phrase.

(12.5%), as are predicative and attributive participles (3.2%) and nominalized adverbial phrases (1.6%).

This section aims to demonstrate that certain phrase structures in the original Greek were regularly transposed into Armenian syntax, at times rendering the result unidiomatic or plainly grammatically faulty. As a comparandum, it is worth keeping in mind the trends prevalent in the (pre-) Hellenising School as outlined by, amongst others, MANANDYAN (1928); MURADYAN (2012); NICHANIAN (1989); TERIAN (1982) whereby it will become evident that the Armenian New Testament partly shares the School's *modus operandi*.²

1.1 The examples cited in the following were drawn from ZOHRABIAN (1805) for the Armenian, and from NESTLE AND ALAND (2001) for the Greek.³ In those instances where either text showed ostentatious grammatical irregularities, *variae lectiones* were consulted both in ZOHRABIAN's critical apparatus, and in KÜNZLE (1984); if variant readings are of any relevance, they will be discussed in the commentary of the passage in question.

The corpus used for analysis was constructed with the help of the TITUS Project of the Universität Frankfurt am Main (Titus 1991); its integrated search engine allows for lemma based enquiry, the results of which were transferred to and formatted in a spreadsheet for further analysis. The query included all paradigmatic forms of the RPro as well as combinations thereof with the common prepositional prefixes *z-* and *i/y-*. The criteria underlying the analysis are as follows: source of Armenian RC, sc. either from Greek RC, from Greek DP, from a participial phrase, or from a different construction; occurrence of case attraction, viz. none, proper attraction, or attraction in free RCs.⁴

Table 1 lists all forms of the RPro, and indicates the number of occurrences within the corpus. At the same time, Table 1 reflects two problems which arise in attempting to compare Greek and Armenian RCs: firstly, the case systems of the two languages do not align neatly, since Armenian

² The question of the Hellenising School will be discussed in more detail in §3.

³ Although both the Greek and the Armenian version of the Bible have undergone various and different changes over the centuries, sensible linguistic comparisons can still be made with the help of manuscript stemmata and critical apparatus; cf. COWE (1992b:59-77); COX (2006).

⁴ By proper attraction is meant the occurrence of a relative clause whose relative pronoun does not show the case syntactically required by the relative clause, but has been 'attracted' into the case of its pivot, or 'antecedent'; the latter term is avoided since pivots do not always precede their relative clause. In attracted free relative clauses, which do not have a pivot, the relative pronoun will exhibit the case required by matrix clause syntax. This topic is discussed in some detail in §4.

has retained the original number of Indo-European cases which in the history of Greek was reduced by syncretism,⁵ resulting in non-biunique correspondences.⁶ Secondly, Armenian nominal and pronominal morphology presents with regular homonymy in certain cases of the paradigm, resulting in, e.g., the formal identity of the Nom./Acc.Sg., or the Gen./Dat./Abl.Pl.; in practice, this causes comparatively little confusion, but is relevant when considering relative attraction.

Case	Singular	Plural
Nom.	<i>or</i> (2184)	<i>ork'</i> (167)
Acc.	<i>y=or</i> (48), <i>z=or</i> (517)	<i>ors</i> (1), <i>y=ors</i> (3), <i>z=ors</i> (36)
Gen.	<i>oroy</i> (151), <i>y=oroy</i> (7), <i>z=oroy</i> (7)	<i>oroc'</i> (94)
Dat.	<i>orum</i> (87)	= Gen.Pl.
Loc.	<i>y=orum</i> (63)	<i>ors</i> (2), <i>y=ors</i> (17)
Abl.	<i>y=ormē</i> (18), <i>z=ormē</i> (13)	<i>y=oroc'</i> (12), <i>z=oroc'</i> (8)
Ins.	<i>orov</i> (82)	<i>orovk'</i> (16)

Table 1 — Numerical Distribution of the Armenian Relative Pronoun

With the exception of the forms *z=or* and *or*, all instances of each case form were taken into consideration; for the two forms named, this was impracticable⁷ due to their sheer number, and lacked purpose for multiple reasons: in passages such as Lk. 3:23-38, 78 occurrences of the pronoun in the Nom.Sg. are found in a paragraph only 169 words long. All of these instances are reflexes of the same Greek construction and make no statistically sensible contribution to an understanding of the Armenian RC due to the nature and length of the passage.⁸ Furthermore, both case forms are

⁵ Functionally, the Indo-European ablative has been subsumed in the Greek genitive, while the dative has taken over the functions of the original locative and instrumental; the development of the morphological features differs according to nominal classes and pronouns, and is of no further import here; cf. BRUGMANN 1897:II.476ff. The non-biunique correspondences resulting from the difference in the Armenian and Greek case system can be neatly categorised, however, since Greek specifies function by means of prepositions.

⁶ Accordingly, not all Greek datives can be mapped on Armenian datives; the mapping has to include the locative and instrumental, too. The situation is further complicated in that even those cases which were retained in both languages without change fail to align in all instances — the Greek nominative as subject case, for instances, will frequently be reflected by an Armenian genitive; cf. ex. (2) below.

⁷ The TITUS Project search engine generally yields a list of 100 results with contextual passages; if more instances occur, they are reproduced as a (sometimes unreliable) hyper-linked reference list. The engine is unable to process more than 1000 items.

⁸ A genealogy of Joseph. The Armenian renders Greek DPs (Gen.Sg. determiner + uninflected Semitic name) as RCs (Nom.Sg RPro + Gen.Sg. name).

the result of conventional and predictable translations in the vast majority of tested cases, wherefore it is more economical to investigate those instances which demonstrate deviation from the perceived standard.⁹

1.2 Etymological considerations regarding the provenance of Arm. *or* go back to MEILLET (1925:183-4; 1927:1-3; 1936:89-90), who relates it to Skt. *katarāḥ*, Slav. *kotorŭ*, *koterŭ*, Goth. *hvarjis*. He further postulates that the form was originally suffixed with an incomplete suffix **(e)ro* < **-tero*,¹⁰ found as such also in Gk. *ἐνερποι* ‘underneath’, Arm. *ner-k’in* ‘id.’. This etymology is uncertain, however, since a regular development of **#k^w-* > Arm. *o-* is contraindicated by, e.g., *k’an* ‘as’ < **k^weh₂n̥t* and *k’arāsun* ‘forty’ < **k^wt(u)r_o-h₂-kōmt-h₂*.¹¹ KÖLLIGAN suggests that Arm. *o(v)*, the interrogative pronoun related to the relative *or*, ‘may be derived from a preform **k^wos-yos* that arose in focal interrogative clauses of the type “who is it who”’ (2006:119); in terms of explaining the development of the initial labiovelar, he only states that ‘the evidence for a development of IE **#k^w-* > *#Ø* in Armenian is weak, but it seems hard to dismiss the equations between the Armenian forms of the interrogative pronouns and its apparent cognates in other languages’ (Kölligan 2006:112).¹² MARTIROSYAN (2010:523) is somewhat laconic in regard to this topic and offers only this statement: ‘More probably, however, it reflects PIE **iō-*’. The development PIE **y-* > Arm. *Ø* has been shown to be similarly hard to prove as the one mentioned above (KÖLLIGAN 2012:142-5) and ought to be discounted.

Given the generally scanty evidence for certain developments in Armenian phonology, it is unlikely that the provenance of the pronouns will ever be clearly identified; yet, further evidence for their likely derivation from **k^wi-/k^wo-* stems may be sought in syntactic parallels.

⁹ The Nom.Sg. form is used ubiquitously and renders either a Greek RC or a participial phrase according to the set of rules laid out below; this form will not be taken into account in the statistical analysis of the corpus for that reason. Similarly, not all instances of the object-marked Acc.Sg. will be taken into account; the scope will here be limited to the four Gospels.

¹⁰ The derivation envisaged by MEILLET (1925) may be viewed more simply as a coexistence of the forms **-tero* and **-ero*, both of which are attested individually on separate grounds (SIHLER 1995:363-4).

¹¹ For these etymologies, cf. MATZINGER (2005:92) and WINTER (1992:351), respectively.

¹² Although called into question by MARTIROSYAN (2010:523), OLSEN (1999:806) gives other examples where PIE **#k^wo-* > Arm. *o-*: Arm. *otn* ‘spine, backbone’ < PIE **k^wolso*, cp. Lat. *collus*, *collum*, Goth. *hals*; the ordinal suffix Arm. *-ord* < PIE **k^wr̥t* (where **-r̥-* > *-or-*), cp. Skt. *-kr̥t*. MARTIROSYAN (2010:530) prefers Arm. *otn* < **ol-ēn-* ‘elbow’, cp. Gr. *ὀλένη*, Lat. *ulna*; the semantics of this choice, if not implausible, seem less convincing than OLSEN’s connection; no mention of the ordinal suffix is made by MARTIROSYAN, but cf. KÖLLIGAN (2006:111) for a summary of caveats.

Corroborating KÖLLIGAN's approach, in which RCs play a subordinate role only, features predominantly associated with other languages employing $*k^w i-/k^w o-$ stem RPros may be cited. Amongst these may be counted the placement of RCs before the matrix clause, the occurrence of correlative pronouns, and occurrences of resumptive pronouns. Since these features do, however, also occur in Greek, whose RPro derives from PIE $*yo-$, none of the above features can be truly indicative. No definite answer to the question concerning the original difference between PIE $*yo-$ and $*k^w i-/k^w o-$ based RPros has been provided yet, but attempts at explanations abound.¹³

A commonality shared by a number of languages with a $*k^w i-/k^w o-$ pronoun, such as Hittite, Latin, and the Sabellic languages, lies in the shared etymology of interrogative, relative, and generalising pronouns;¹⁴ in Armenian, the former two are morphologically very similar,¹⁵ while for the indefinite pronoun, cp. Lat. *quisquis*, Hitt. *kuiš kuiš*, Osc. *pispis*, which developed from the reduplicated $*k^w i-/k^w o-$ stem, Armenian may only have a comparable, but not identical form *ok'*, which is commonly used with the relative *or* as *or ok'* to denote 'whoever'.¹⁶ All this squares well with Lehmann's observation that languages never share relative and indefinite morphology, unless the same is shared by the interrogative pronoun (1984:325).

While this may speak in favour of a $*k^w i-/k^w o-$ stem for Armenian *or*, it ought to be kept in mind that no definitive or even fully consistent

¹³ The two relative pronouns are often analysed as deriving from anaphoric and interrogative pronouns, respectively (MONTEIL 1963:11-14; RUIJGH 1971:319). It is, however, unclear whether they had relative functions in Proto-Indo-European already, or whether these developed in the individual daughter languages. HETTRICH (1988:757-63), for example, argues that Indo-Iranian and Greek replaced the original $*k^w i-/k^w o-$ pronoun with a $*yo-$ stem, both of which he takes to be relative pronouns with different functions, with the latter encroaching on the functional domain of the former.

¹⁴ This further speaks against MARTIROSYAN's (2010) derivation of *o(v)* etc. < $*yo-$; in all Proto-Indo-European languages in which interrogative, relative and indefinite pronouns are of related forms, the interrogative derives from the $*k^w i-/k^w o-$ stem. In addition, the great majority of Indo-European languages, even those with $*yo-$ relatives, still retain $*k^w i-/k^w o-$ interrogatives.

¹⁵ The morphological identity is that between RPro and interrogative adjective, whereas the interrogative and generalising pronouns have distinct, but phonologically closely comparable forms; cf. JENSEN (1959:84-8).

¹⁶ ARMB (III.620) relates this to e.g. Lat. (*ali-*)*quis, quisque* < $*k^w is-k^w e$, supported by DE LAMBERTERIE (1989:250, 267); KÖLLIGAN (2006) admonishes that there are no parallels supporting the argument that a dissimilation $*k^w \dots k^w \rightarrow \emptyset \dots k'$ might have given rise to *o(v)*, but the typological parallels with other Indo-European languages in showing a related triad of interrogative, generalising and relative pronouns are hard to deny and speak in favour of such or a similar reconstruction for *ok'*.

approach to RPros and RCs in Proto-Indo-European has been brought forward yet. Many competing theories present persuasive arguments in favour of reconstructing, e.g. no RPROs at all,¹⁷ or different relativizing functions for *k^wi-/k^wo- and *yo- respectively.¹⁸

1.3 Little in the general usage of RPros and RCs in Armenian differs from other Indo-European languages. In both instances, the case of the RPro is usually determined by its syntactic function within the dependent clause (r-case), whereas its number is generally, but by no means always,¹⁹ governed by its pivot, if present;²⁰ Armenian does not distinguish gender. As regards mood, the indicative is by far the most common one, but the subjunctive stands where uncertainty or necessity is expressed (cf. JENSEN 1959:198-9, 205). (1) below is an example of a standard headed RC, in which the pivot *mi geawt* ‘a village’ is restricted by the clause introduced by *orum* ‘to which’.

(1) Mt. 26:36

<i>yaynžam</i>	<i>gay</i>	<i>Y(isu)s</i>	<i>and</i>	<i>nosa</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>geawt</i>	<i>mi</i>
then	go.3.Sg.Prs	Jesus	with	3.Acc.Pl	into	village.Acc.Sg	Indf.Acc.Sg
<i>orum</i>	<i>anun</i>	<i>ē</i>		<i>Get'sēmani</i>			
Rel.Dat.Sg	name	be.3.Sg.Prs		Gethsemane			

‘Then Jesus went with them to a village whose (to which) name is Gethsemane’

It is worth noting that, as in all other syntactic constructions, the genitive of the RPro may act as the subject of the clause if a participle or an impersonal expression with the participle form the VP of that clause; this

¹⁷ MONTEIL (1963) and others argue, that neither *k^wi-/k^wo- nor *yo- were relative pronouns in Proto-Indo-European times, but indefinite and anaphoric pronouns, respectively. This were to mean that at that time, subordination by relativisation was not possible, wherefore the syntagma may have developed differently in the individual languages; for an alternative approach based on adjoining instead of embedded subordinate clauses, cf. KIPARSKY (1995).

¹⁸ HAJNAL (1997:58-64), like HETTRICH (1988), argues for two distinct relative pronouns, which fulfil different semantic functions on a synchronous Proto-Indo-European level, i.e. *yo- forms non-restrictive, appositive RCs, whilst *k^wi-/k^wo- is used in maximalising and restrictive contexts.

¹⁹ The Nom.Sg. *or* is at times also used to refer to a plural pivot (JENSEN 1959:86; SCHMITT 1981:123); for other aspects of nominative-accusative case syncretism in Armenian, cf. KORTLANDT (1985). Similar agreement failures also occur in Homeric Greek (CHANTRAINE 1953:21) and may be an archaic feature of both languages.

²⁰ JENSEN (1959:198) states that ‘Ein Pron. dem. [demonstrative pronoun] kann, braucht aber nicht dem Relativpronomen vorauszugehen’; as in many other Indo-European languages, a relative without explicit pivot may be a headless, free relative, or may relativise on a whole clause.

shift is the result of an agency-pivot in perfect tense constructions, and sets Armenian apart both from Greek and the majority of other Indo-European languages.

(2) Mt. 25:24

<i>matuc'eal</i>	<i>ew</i>	<i>oroy</i>	<i>z=mi</i>	<i>k'ank'ar=n</i>
approach.Perf.Ptcp	and	Rel.Gen.Sg	Obj=one	talent.Acc.Sg=Det
<i>areal</i>	<i>ēr,</i>	<i>asē.</i>		
receive.Perf.Ptcp	be.3.Sg.Pst	say.3.Sg.Prs		

‘The one who had received the talent approached and said.’ (lit. ‘Having approached, (he by) whom the talent was received, said.’)²¹

For a recent account of the tripartite alignment of the periphrastic perfect in Classical Armenian, cf. MEYER (2014; 2016; 2017).

A further peculiarity of Armenian consists of the occurrence of the determiner enclitics *=s*, *=d*, *=n*, which has been the topic of research since MEILLET (1897:24-5), who states that ‘the [definite] article is placed immediately after the first independent accented word or group of words, whatever they may be, following the relative pronoun’; further studies by AČARYAN (1954) and MINASSIAN (1981) have contributed much to the topic by surveying conditions under which the clitics occur. VAUX (1994-5) argues that the clitic attaches to the XP or its head which through topicalisation has been raised to a more prominent position in the clause; as for the reasons of presence or absence of the clitic, however, none of the above provide further suggestions. VAUX’s assertion that the clitic ‘agrees in deixis with its antecedent [=pivot] in the main clause’ (1994-5:28) implies, but does not expressly state that without a pivot, and thus specific deixis, the clitic does not usually occur; the data here suggests otherwise. Further, more than 50% of the surveyed RCs contain only one syntactic constituent other than the RPro, another 38% contain two. Taking into account that the constituents marked by the clitic in more than 65% of cases are part of the VP, it is doubtful whether, at least in the context of the New Testament, topicalisation is an adequate explanation of the phenomenon.²²

²¹ The word order of this passage is unusual and distinctly unidiomatic. It results from strict adherence to the Greek original, in which both RCs are rendered as participles.

²² The statistical distribution in the secondary corpus differs considerably, raising the question whether Greek influence on Armenian may have caused this discrepancy; the translation of Greek participial DPs with monophrasal Armenian RCs is statistically very common, and it is plausible that the clitics were used as DP delimiters.

Note that the clitic does not occur in object RCs showing resumptive pronouns (HEWITT 1978:119; MINASSIAN 1981:135); the question then arises whether and under which circumstances the concept of definiteness may play a role. Passage (3) gives an example of the application of the clitic, whilst (4) demonstrates that the pivot need not be definite (*mi* is an indefinite pronoun), but must at least be marked in some way.

(3) Jn. 3:29

<i>ays</i>	<i>uraxut'iwn,</i>	<i>or</i>	<i>im=s</i>	<i>ē</i>
Dem.Nom.Sg	happiness.Nom.Sg	Rel.Nom.Sg	1.Poss.Nom.Sg=Det	be.3.Sg.Prs

'This happiness, which is mine(-here).'

(4) Mt. 12:10

<i>ew</i>	<i>and</i>	<i>ēr</i>	<i>ayr</i>	<i>mi</i>	<i>oroy</i>
and	there	be.3.Sg.Pst	man.Nom.Sg	Indf.Nom.Sg	Rel.Gen.Sg

<i>jein</i>	<i>iwr</i>	<i>gōsac'eal</i>	<i>ēr.</i>
hand.Nom.Sg	3.Poss.Nom.Sg	wither.Perf.Ptcp	be.3.Sg.Pst

'And there was a man whose (his) hand was withered.'

Both (3) and (4) show deictic marking within the RC, but are not definite to the same extent: in (3), the pivot is specified by a demonstrative pronoun, while in (4) an indefinite pronoun accompanies it. It is thus worth asking whether the 'specificity' of the pivot, viz. the fact that it is specified by a pronoun or other marking, may be a condition of the RC containing resumptive pronouns or Wackernagel clitics (cf. SCALA 2011). A study of the Gospel of Luke by DE LAMBERTERIE has concluded that such a differentiation does indeed occur:

'L'article a en phrase relative le même emploi qu'avec un nom ou un syntagme nominal, à savoir une valeur anaphorique ou déictique ... La relative prend donc l'article, quand elle fait référence à une personne ou à une chose déterminée, connue' (1997:318).

As his analysis shows, however, not all instances follow this pattern straightforwardly, and the manuscript tradition has, to a certain extent, obscured the application of the rule; passage (5) demonstrates an anomaly wherein the clitic does not attach to the first phrase or its head, as described by, e.g., VAUX (1994-5:25), but instead attaches to the finite verb.

(5) 2Pt. 1:1

<i>šmawon</i>	<i>Petros</i>	<i>caray</i>	<i>ew</i>	<i>aṛak'eal</i>	<i>Y(isu)si</i>
Simon	Peter	servant.Nom.Sg	and	send.Perf.Ptcp	Jesus.Gen.Sg

Συμεών	Πέτρος	δοῦλος	καὶ	ἀπόστολος	Ἰησοῦ
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<i>K'(risto)si,</i>	<i>oroc'</i>	<i>hangitapatiw</i>	<i>mez</i>
Christ.Gen.Sg	Rel.Dat.Pl	equally-honored	1.Dat.Pl
Χριστοῦ	τοῖς	ἰσότιμον	ἡμῖν
<i>hasēk'=d</i>	<i>hawatoc'</i>	<i>y=ardarut'i(wn)...</i>	
arrive.2.Pl.Aor=Det	faith.Gen.Pl	in=righteousness.Acc.Sg	
λαχοῦσιν	πίστιν	ἐν δικαιοσύνῃ	
'Simon Peter, servant and apostle of Jesus Christ, [writes] to [you] who, equal to us in honour, have arrived in the righteousness of faith ...'			

There are two distinct analyses of this usage: on the one hand, it is not implausible to assume that, since the clitic in the great majority of instances attaches to the verb, the translator should have chosen to adhere to this general tendency here, as well; under these circumstances, the preceding *hangitapatiw mez* may have been analysed as an adverbial adjunct, and thus counted as part of the VP (cf. DE LAMBERTERIE 1997:317). Given the context of imitating Greek, however, there is a different approach that is worth considering. The clitic may be used to reflect the agreement structure between the Greek article τοῖς and the head of the NP it determines, λαχοῦσιν. The Armenian version may thus have attempted to parallel this notion by introducing the clitic at this late position.²³

1.4 Since Armenian RCs arise from a variety of syntactic constructions in Greek, they are best sub-divided into three large categories: those which reflect Greek RCs; those rendering Greek DPs with embedded participial or adverbial phrases; and those which reflect attributively or predicatively used participles. The first group is demonstrably the largest due to the high frequency of RCs in New Testament Greek.

1.4.1 As pointed out in (2) above, the New Testament translation, like the Hellenising School, often keenly preserves Greek word order and syntax, as can be seen in the mapping of RCs.

In the simplest and most common instances,²⁴ a Greek RC will find a one-to-one correspondence regarding case, number and word order in its Armenian translation, as for example in (6).

²³ Note further that MERCIER (1978:71) finds the determiner to be generally more frequent in the works of the Hellenising School; a connection with the Greek seems likely, even though a more direct imitation of the Greek would have called for a participle. At least in the NT, however, a rendition of a Greek participle with an Armenian participle is rare if the former retains a clearly verbal character, e.g. by taking a direct object.

²⁴ While c. 48% of all surveyed examples display direct correspondence between Greek and Armenian usage of cases, this number would severely increase if regular agreement

(6) Rom 4:7

<i>erani</i>	<i>oroc'</i>	<i>t'olan</i>	<i>anōrēnut'iwnk'</i>	<i>ew</i>
blessed	Rel.Gen.Pl	forgive.3.Pl.Aor.Pass	misdeed.Nom.Pl	and
μακάριοι	ὧν	ἀφέθησαν	αἱ ἀνομίαι	καὶ
<i>oroc'</i>	<i>cackec'an</i>	<i>metk'</i>	<i>iwreanc'</i>	
Rel.Gen.Pl	cover.3.Pl.Aor.Pass	sin.Nom.Pl	Res.Gen.Pl	
ὧν	ἐπεκαλύφθησαν	αἱ ἁμαρτίαι		
'Blessed are they whose iniquities were forgiven, and whose sins were covered.'				

A comparison of the Greek and Armenian version yields complete correspondence in usage of case, tense and word order; the added *iwreanc'* is the result of a secondary relativisation strategy in which next to the fully case-marked RPro, a resumptive pronoun occurs in the original position of RelNP. This does not commonly occur in Greek, and must thus reflect a direct decision of the Armenian translators, or a Syriac vestige.

Yet, correspondence of case and word order are not always maintained in these translations. The following passages exemplify where such differences surface for reasons of different case usage and because of prepositions.

(7) Lk. 2:25

<i>ew</i>	<i>aha,</i>	<i>ēr</i>	<i>ayr</i>	<i>mi</i>	<i>y=E(rusatē)m,</i>
and	behold	be.3.Sg.Pst	man.Nom.Sg	Indf.Nom.Sg	in=Jerusalem
καὶ	ἰδοὺ,	ἦν	ἄνθρωπος		ἐν Ἱερουσαλὴμ
<i>oroy</i>	<i>anun</i>	<i>ēr</i>	<i>Simeovn.</i>		
Rel.Gen.Sg	name.Nom.Sg	be.3.Sg.Pst	Simeon		
ὃ	ὄνομα		Συμεὼν		
'And behold, there was a man in Jerusalem, whose name was Simeon.'					

(8) Mk. 14:71

<i>oč'</i>	<i>gitem</i>	<i>z=ayr=n</i>	<i>z=ormē</i>
Neg	know.1.Sg.Prs	Obj=man.Acc.Sg=Det	about=Rel.Abl.Sg
Οὐκ	οἶδα	τὸν ἄνθρωπον τοῦτον	ὃν
<i>duk'=d</i>	<i>asēk'.</i>		
2.Nom.Pl=Det	speak.2.Pl.Prs		
	λέγετε		

'I don't know the man you are talking about.'

between the Greek prepositional dative, e.g., ἐν ᾧ, and the Armenian prepositional locative, *y=orum*, and other such agreements were taken into account; the correspondence rate would rise into the range of c.75%.

Example (7) demonstrates the difference in the expression of possessive relations; whilst Greek uses the dative (Smyth 1984:341),²⁵ Armenian here chooses the genitive.

In (8), the direct object RC in Greek is rendered by means of a preposition. The reason for this deviation lies in the rection of the verbs used: Gk. λέγω can take a direct object in the meaning ‘talk about, mention’, whereas neither Arm. *asem* nor *xawsem* can mirror this syntactic configuration. Therefore, the paraphrasis with the preposition *z=* + ablative is employed. Further note the rendition of the Greek demonstrative τοῦτον by means of the clitic *=n* in (8).

In general it is safe to say that Greek prepositions, at least in the context of RPros, are often directly equated with an Armenian counterpart, e.g. Gk. ἐν + Dat. > Arm. *i/y=* + Acc. (9), Gk. δία + Acc. > Arm. *vasn* + Gen. (10).

(9) 1Cor. 15:1

<i>c'uc'anem</i>	<i>jez</i>	<i>etbark'</i>	<i>z=awetaran=n</i>
show.1.Sg.Prs	2.Dat.Pl	brother.Nom.Pl	Obj=gospel.Acc.Sg=Det
γνωρίζω δὲ	ὕμῖν	ἀδελφοί	τὸ εὐαγγέλιον
<i>im</i>	...	<i>z=or</i>	<i>ew ankalaruk'</i> , <i>y=or</i>
1.Poss.Acc.Sg		Obj=Rel.Acc.Sg	also receive.2.Pl.Aor in=Rel.Acc.Sg
	...	<i>ð</i>	<i>καὶ παρελάβετε ἐν ᾧ</i>
<i>ew</i>	<i>hastateal=d</i>	<i>ek'</i>	
also	be-firm.Perf.Ptcp=Det	be.2.Pl.Prs	
<i>καὶ</i>	<i>ἐστήκατε</i>		

‘I show you, brethren, my gospel ... which you received, and into which you also are set.’

(10) 2Pt. 2:2

<i>ew bazumk'</i>	<i>ankeal</i>	<i>ert'ic'en</i>	<i>z=het</i>
and many.Nom.Pl	fall.Perf.Parc	go.3.Pl.Prs.Subj	Obj=path.Acc.Sg
<i>καὶ πολλοὶ</i>		<i>ἐξακολουθήσουσιν</i>	
<i>n(o)c'(a)</i>	<i>anařakut'e(an)c'=n.</i>	<i>v(a)s(n)</i>	<i>oroy</i>
Dem.Gen.Pl	debauchery.Gen.Pl=Det	because	Rel.Gen.Sg
<i>αὐτῶν</i>	<i>ταῖς ἀπολείαις,</i>	<i>δι'</i>	<i>οὓς</i>
<i>čřmartu(t')e(an)=n</i>	<i>čanaparh</i>	<i>hayhoyic'i</i>	
truth.Gen.Sg=Det	path	besmirch.3.Sg.Prs.Subj.Pass	
<i>ἡ ὁδὸς τῆς ἀληθείας</i>		<i>βλασφημηθήσεται</i>	

‘And many, having fallen, will follow their path of debauchery, wherefore the path of truth is besmirched.’

²⁵ cf. KULNEFF-ERIKSSON (1999) for a general overview of the development of ‘have’ in Ancient Greek.

(9) is just one example of the use of the preposition *i/y=*, which also occurs with different cases reflecting Gk. ἐν, εἰς, ἀπό; in each instance, the Greek prepositional phrase (with and without RCs) are the trigger for the Armenian rendition. The non-biunique correspondence mechanisms of the various Greek prepositions corresponding to Arm. *i/y=* are reminiscent of similar patterns found in the Hellenising School; there, it is mainly verbal and nominal prefixes that show such close affinities.²⁶

A final point of interest is presented by (10). Here, the Greek phrase δὲ οὗς relativises on its pivot πολλοί, whereas the Armenian *vasn oroy*, by virtue of being both singular and extremely frequent, undoubtedly takes the whole preceding clause as its sentential pivot. The preposition itself is of Iranian origin, presumably related to Pth. *wsn'd* /wasnād/, MP *wšn* /wašn/ cp. OP *vašna* (ArmB IV.309b; DURKIN-MEISTERERNST 2004:346-7); while in Old Persian it governs the genitive as well, it remains obscure how this could account for the same case in Armenian. Parthian, the main contact language, is genetically related to Old Persian, but has lost the fine case distinction still extant in the latter for the benefit of a direct-oblique-distinction which remains only in the pronominal system.²⁷ The equation of Gk. δὲ with *vasn oroy*, which occurs very frequently, may be explained in different ways: given that δὲ < δὲ' (LSJ 482; also cp. NBHL II:785) it is parallel to the Armenian; this, however, is to assume that such analysis and understanding of the common conjunction was still prevalent amongst the Greek contemporaries and thus Armenian translators. A second possibility lies in the grammaticalisation and subsequent spread of the collocation *vasn oroy*, which due to its semantic proximity was chosen to stand in for δὲ, having undergone a similar development.²⁸

The examples in this section expose a number of peculiarities occurring in the Greco-Armenian translation of the New Testament. Correspondence of word order and construction, which are also common features of the Hellenising School, stand in opposition to the idiomatic usage of cases and semantic deviations from the original, both of which are atypical of the otherwise strict translations. This pattern may be seen as a compromise

²⁶ For an overview, cf. CLACKSON (1995:124), for examples in context, cf., e.g., MANANDEAN (1928:94); also see below, §3.1. Note, however, that the New Testament translation does not make any attempts at rendering Greek preverbs in a manner comparable to that of the School.

²⁷ The correspondence between the Parthian oblique case and the Armenian genitive has other manifestations as well; cf. MEYER (2016; 2017) on the case of the genitive agent in the Armenian periphrastic perfect.

²⁸ It is worth noting the possibility that the reading *vasn oroy* may be the result of an erroneous manuscript reading for *vasn oroc'*, since *y* and *c'* are easily confused in uncial manuscripts (DE LAMBERTERIE 1997:325 n. 16).

between a fully literal rendition of the Greek into Armenian, in adherence to the later School, and a free, viz. syntactically unbound, translation, preserving much of the structure of the *Vorlage* while at the same time providing maximal idiomaticity and comprehensibility. The latter, as will be argued below, may have been one of the main concerns.

1.4.2 JENSEN mentions both proper attraction and inverse attraction briefly (1959:210),²⁹ with very few examples from the New Testament; it ought to be added, however, that the occurrence of attracted RPros, and thus attraction proper, is restricted to the New Testament, as no instances can be found in other contemporaneous texts.

It is noteworthy that in the Greek New Testament, relative attraction is not uncommon; where it occurs, however, the Armenian version does not usually imitate it, but instead translates in a fully grammatical fashion across the board.

(11) Lk. 2:20

<i>ew</i>	<i>darjan</i>	<i>hoviwk' = n</i>	<i>p'arawor</i>	<i>ar'nein</i>	
and	return.3.Pl.Aor	shepherd.Nom.Pl=Det	glorious	make.3.Pl.Pst	
καὶ	ἐπέστρεψαν	οἱ ποιμένες	δοξάζοντες		
<i>ew</i>	<i>ōrhnein</i>	<i>z = A(stua)c,</i>	<i>vasn</i>	<i>amenayni</i>	
and	praise.3.Pl.Pst	Obj=God.Acc.Sg	because	everything.Gen.Sg	
καὶ	αἰνοῦντες	τὸν θεόν	ἐπὶ	πᾶσιν	
<i>z = or</i>	<i>luan</i>	<i>ew</i>	<i>tesin,</i>	<i>orpēs</i>	<i>patmec'aw</i>
Obj=Rel.Acc.Sg	hear.3.Pl.Aor	and	see.3.Pl.Aor	as	tell.3.Sg.Aor.Pass
οἷς	ἤκουσαν	καὶ	εἶδον	καθὼς	ἐλάληθη
<i>noc' a.</i>					
3.Dat.Pl					
πρὸς αὐτούς					

‘And the shepherds returned, glorified and praised God because of everything that they had heard and seen, as it was told to them.’

In (11), the Armenian version employs the nota accusativi *z=* and a RPro in the accusative to render the direct object of the verbs *lsem* ‘to hear’ and *tesanem* ‘to see’; the same would be expected in the Greek original, since ἀκούω ‘to hear’ is similarly constructed with an accusative or a genitive. In the present examples, however, the RPro οἷς fulfilling the

²⁹ Inverse attraction is constituted by the attraction of the pivot, or antecedent, into the case of the relative pronoun; cf. §2.3 and n. 47.

direct object function presents with dative morphology, caused by its pivot $\pi\tilde{\alpha}\sigma\iota\nu$, rather than the expected r-case accusative. Whereas the attraction of free RCs seems to have a discourse-based reason (see below, §4.2), the motivation for proper attraction remains hard to fathom.³⁰

Yet, there are numerous examples of attraction of free RCs, in which the RPro takes on the case syntactically required by the matrix clause (m-case). This type of attraction occurs both in Greek and Armenian (12), and at times in Armenian alone (13).

(12) Lk. 23:41

<i>ew</i>	<i>mek'</i>	<i>y=irawi,</i>	<i>zi</i>	<i>aržani</i>	<i>oroc'</i>
and	1.Nom.Pl	in=justice.Loc.Sg	because	worthy	Rel.Gen.Pl
$\kappa\alpha\iota$	$\eta\mu\epsilon\tilde{\iota}\varsigma$ $\mu\acute{\epsilon}\nu$	$\delta\iota\kappa\alpha\acute{\iota}\omega\varsigma$	$\check{\alpha}\xi\iota\alpha$ $\gamma\grave{\alpha}\rho$		$\tilde{\omicron}\nu$
<i>gorcec'</i>	<i>ak'=n</i>	<i>a'numk'</i>	<i>z=hatuc'</i>	<i>umn</i>	
do.1.Pl.Aor=Det	take.1.Pl.Prs		Obj=compensation.Acc.Sg		
$\acute{\epsilon}\pi\rho\acute{\alpha}\xi\alpha\mu\epsilon\nu$	$\acute{\alpha}\pi\omicron\lambda\alpha\mu\beta\acute{\alpha}\nu\omicron\mu\epsilon\nu$				
'And we justly take compensation worthy of what we have done.'					

(13) Jn. 4:22

<i>duk'</i>	<i>erkir paganēk'</i>	<i>orum</i>	<i>oč'=n</i>	<i>gitēk'</i> ,	<i>mek'</i>
2.Nom.Pl	worship.2.Pl.Prs	Rel.Dat.Sg	Neg=Det	know.2.Pl.Prs	1.Nom.Pl
$\tilde{\upsilon}\mu\epsilon\tilde{\iota}\varsigma$	$\pi\rho\sigma\kappa\upsilon\nu\epsilon\tilde{\iota}\tau\epsilon$	$\tilde{\omicron}$	$\omicron\tilde{\upsilon}\kappa$	$\omicron\tilde{\iota}\delta\alpha\tau\epsilon$	$\eta\mu\epsilon\tilde{\iota}\varsigma$
<i>erkir paganemk'</i>	<i>orum</i>	<i>gitemk'=n</i>			
worship.1.Pl.Prs	Rel.Dat.Sg	know.1.Pl.Prs			
$\pi\rho\sigma\kappa\upsilon\nu\omicron\tilde{\mu}\epsilon\nu$	$\tilde{\omicron}$	$\omicron\tilde{\iota}\delta\alpha\mu\epsilon\nu$			
'You worship things you don't know, we worship things we do know.'					

The RC verb in (11), *gorcem* 'to do, make', usually takes a direct object, wherefore the RPro would be expected to show accusative morphology; as it is, however, the RPro occurs in the genitive instead. The latter is governed by *aržani* and $\check{\alpha}\xi\iota\omicron\varsigma$ 'worthy of', respectively, both of which regularly take genitive complements.³¹ The Armenian version further

³⁰ GRIMM (2007) suggests underlying restrictions governing the potential application of relative attraction, but does not attempt an explanation as to why it occurs. FÖRSTER (1868) gives various explanations pertaining to individual examples, not all of which are relative attraction in the strict sense, but in general only concludes that it is used in essential, defining, short statements (1868:30). In the particular case of (11) above, one may argue along the lines of CITKO (1999) that light-headed RCs, i.e. those with a semantically empty, pronominal pivot, may have features pertaining to both headed and free RCs, since here attraction phenomena do at times occur; cf. §1.4.4 and, for thoughts on Greek, PROBERT (2015:ch.7).

³¹ For *aržani*, cp. NBHL (I:357), ARMB (I:315); note also DURKIN-MEISTERERNST (2004:52) — *aržani* is not only a phonological borrowing on Pth. *'rj'n*/aržān/, but translates

chose to translate ἀπολαμβάνω ‘to take from another; to receive what one is due’ as a phrase *ai’numk’ z=hatuc’umn* ‘to receive one’s due’ since no single verb is able to render the precise nuance of the Greek; cp. LSJ (205), GELS (205). It is self-evident that this instance of attraction is not directly comparable to the one presented in (11), since there is no pivot which could exert an ‘attractive force’. Therefore, it may be assumed that in instances where no pivot occurs, the RPro may occur in the case required by the matrix clause (m-case), provided that the sentence would otherwise be less easily comprehensible. It is not evident from (12), however, whether this should apply to both languages or to Greek alone, since the Armenian version may well be a direct translation.

Passage (13), however, speaks in favour of the independent applicability of this rule in New Testament Armenian as well. Like οἶδα, Arm. *gitem* also takes an accusative as its direct object; while in Greek, the RPro does indeed occur in the accusative, the Armenian version instead shows dative morphology. As per above, this is readily explained: the phrase *erkir paganem* ‘to worship’ (lit. ‘to kiss the earth’) is construed with a dative for the beneficiary; this conforms with the hierarchies outlined by, e.g., GROSU (1994:108), see below, §§4.1-2.

The question remains under which circumstances this construction arose. SMYTH (1984:568) outlines the rules governing relative attraction with omitted pivot for Greek, but due to the scarcity of examples in Armenian, no such generalisations can be made. As for the historical development of this attraction in free RCs, QUICOLI (1972) suggests that, at least for Portuguese, at a prior stage a pivot in the form of a demonstrative pronoun may have existed; the RPro at this stage would have shown r-case morphology. Thereupon followed a stage of relative attraction, whereby the RPro acquired m-case from the pivot, followed by loss of the latter due to simplification, and grammaticalisation of the construction. Since relative attraction does, however, not occur in the earliest Greek texts available, and is therefore likely to have developed in historical times, such a development should be, but is not documented. Further, as mentioned above, the constraints for attraction of headed RCs are more restrictive than those of free RCs; should the latter be derived from the former, this would be unusual. The precise provenance of the phenomenon in Greek remains unclear, but cf. PROBERT (2015: ch. 7). Whether its occurrence in Armenian has arisen from historical syntactic developments,

its oblique dependencies, construed with ‘w’ ‘of’ in Parthian, as well. For ἄξιός, cp. SMYTH (1984:333), / օ / LSJ (171).

Greek influence or from elsewhere can only be determined with the help of data from original, non-translation texts; cf. §2 below.

A further attraction phenomenon may be observed in example (14) below. The Greek and the Armenian version correspond in word order; even more interesting, however, is the choice of syntax.

(14) Act. 22:15

<i>zi</i>	<i>etic'es</i>	<i>vkay</i>	<i>nora</i>	<i>ar</i>	<i>am(enayn)</i>
for	become.2.Sg.Aor.Subj	witness.Nom.Sg	Dem.Gen.Sg	to	all
ὅτι	ἔσῃ	μάρτυς	αὐτῷ	πρὸς	πάντας
<i>mardik,</i>	<i>oroc'</i>	<i>teser=n</i>	<i>ew</i>	<i>luar.</i>	
man.Acc.Sg	Rel.Gen.Pl	see.2.Sg.Aor=Det	and	hear.2.Sg.Aor	
ἀνθρώπους	ὧν	ἑώρακας	καὶ	ἤκουσας	

'For you shall be his witness to all mankind of what you have seen and heard.'

This passage demonstrates an occurrence of attraction which cannot be explained on the basis of lexically required case governance. The RPro here is dependent on *vkay* and *μάρτυς* 'witness', respectively, which as a NP does not lexically govern any case. The RPro and the clause it introduces are thus not complements, but only adjuncts to the NP, showing that attraction occurs in a variety of syntactic relations. Once more, however, the question arises whether the Armenian version is but a reflection of the Greek, or whether the syntagma occurs naturally in Armenian.

Before the discussion of non-translated texts, however, other aspects of Greco-Armenian translation mechanisms need to be considered. The following section will bring to light and explain occurrences of RCs which are unparalleled in Greek.

1.4.3 In at least one instance, the translators of the Greek original committed an error of analysis, which renders the Armenian version of the passage grammatically nonsensical.

(15) Lk. 3:23

<i>ew</i>	<i>ink'n</i>	<i>Y(isu)s</i>	<i>ēr</i>	<i>amac'</i>	<i>ibrew</i>	<i>eresnic'</i>	<i>skseal</i>
and	Int	Jesus	be.3.Sg.Pst	year.Gen.Pl	like	thirty.Gen.Pl	begin.Perf.Ptcp
καὶ	αὐτὸς	ἦν ὁ Ἰησοῦς	ὥσει	ἐτῶν	τριάκοντα	ἀρχόμενος	
<i>oroc'</i>	<i>orpēs</i>	<i>ew</i>	<i>karcēr</i>	<i>ordi</i>	<i>Yovsep'ay</i>	...	
Rel.Gen.Pl	as	and	think.3.Sg.Pst	son	Joseph.Gen.Sg		
ὧν	ὥς		ἐνομίζετο	υἱός	Ἰωσήφ	...	

meant to read:

‘And Jesus himself began (his ministry, being) about 30 years of age, as it was reckoned, [he] the son of Joseph ...’

As is evident, word order and semantics are roughly equivalent in all but one instance. In the same way that the Armenian version has adopted the periphrastic past tense employed by the koine Greek, the intention to render օ՛վ as faithfully as possible must have prevailed as well. Here, however, lies the error of analysis: where the Greek uses օ՛վ, Prs.Ptcp.Nom. Sg.Masc of εἶμι ‘to be’, the Armenian translator must instead have read օ՛վ, the Gen.Pl. of the RPro (cf. MACLER 1919:423). No information as to whether this may have been an error of accentuation (if present) in the Greek manuscript,³² or whether the confusion originated with the translator is available; the critical apparatus of the Greek New Testament shows different readings of this sentence, but the participle is not absent in any of them. Equally, ZOHABIAN also adds only ‘*omank*’. *Orpēs ew karcēr*’ — ‘some (mss): “as it was further reckoned”’ —, which does not clarify the situation. Due to this fault, the sentence is rendered completely ungrammatical; *oroc* ‘has no obvious pivot, nor a verb to be governed by, since *orpēs ew karcēr* ‘as it was reckoned’ forms a clause of its own. It is most peculiar that this should not have been noticed or corrected, and raises the question whether the translator or copyist of this particular passage actually understood its syntax. While previous examples have shown either a rendition *ad sensum* or a very close adherence to the text, (15) belongs to neither of those categories.

1.4.4 In addition to the correspondences between Greek and Armenian RCs, a significant number of the latter correspond to Greek DPs, in which an article is used to nominalise a participial or adverbial phrase.³³ An example will elucidate the general pattern underlying these transpositions.

³² This seems unlikely. Whilst accent marks are found from the 3rd century BCE onwards (VENDRYES 1904:5-18), most biblical manuscripts of the 4th and 5th century CE were written in uncials and did either not bear accents, or only on a minority of words and with a high error rate (BIONDI 1983:11-15). Polytonic accentuation was not universally spread until the advent of minuscule script in the 9th century CE (PROBERT 2006:45-6, 48-9). It is noteworthy, however, that similar mistakes occur in the works of the Hellenising School, as noted by BOLOGNESI (2000a:50) for the *Progymnasmata* of Aelius Theon.

³³ For a comprehensive treatment of the Armenian translations of Greek participial phrases, cf. BĂNĂȚEANU (1937).

(16) Mt. 14:21

<i>ew ork'</i>	<i>keran=n</i>	<i>ein</i>	<i>ark'</i>	<i>ibrew</i>
and Rel.Nom.Pl	eat.3.Pl.Aor=Det	be.3.Pl.Pst	man.Nom.Pl	like
οἱ δέ	ἐσθίοντες	ἦσαν	ἄνδρες	ὥσει
<i>hing hazar.</i>				
five thousand				
πεντακισχίλιοι				
'And [those] who ate were about five thousand men.'				

Both here and in many earlier examples, the enclitic *δέ* was rendered by *ew* 'and' since Armenian does not have enclitic connective particles; apart from that, the sentence corresponds to its model in the usual pattern. The observation that the RPro reflects the Greek article in both place and function, and that the RC contains both a fully inflected verb and the determiner clitic in Wackernagel position leads to the question whether in the transposition process, the translators have simply reconfigured such DPs as free relative clauses, as they occur naturally in Armenian.

Passage (16) displays the issue at hand in its simplest form; the Armenian RPro occurs in the nominative, whereas the Greek participle is rendered as an inflected verb form; the latter is used absolutely, wherefore the resulting free RC is very simple. The rendition of more difficult constructions does not cause any problems, either.

(17) Mt. 17:24

<i>ibrew</i>	<i>ekin</i>	<i>nok'a</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>Kap'aïnaum,</i>	<i>matean</i>
when	come.3.Pl.Aor	3.Nom.Pl	to	Capernaum,	approach.3.Pl.Aor
Ἐλθόντων δέ		αὐτῶν	εἰς	Καπερναοῦμ,	προσῆλθον
<i>ork'</i>	<i>z=erkdramean=n</i>			<i>pahanjein</i>	<i>ar Petros</i>
Rel.Nom.Pl	Obj=didrachma.Acc.Sg=Det			claim.3.Pl.Pst	to Peter
οἱ	τὰ δίδραχμα			λαμβάνοντες	τῷ Πέτρῳ
'When they came to Capernaum, those who received a didrachma went to Peter.'					

A number of aspects in this passage are of interest: while (17) contains two participles, only one of them is translated into Armenian by means of a RC; the other, as part of a genitive absolute with temporal connotation, was recognised as such and rendered accordingly as a dependent clause.³⁴

³⁴ This once more underscores the above mentioned notion that the translators were striving for a balance between close adherence to the original text and an idiomatic and sensible rendition of the content in Armenian, as opposed to the Hellenising School.

Secondly, it must be noted that (17), like (16), contains a free RC. Finally, the direct object of the participle is seamlessly rendered as direct object of the finite verb in the RC, while at the same time preserving the original word order as displayed in the Greek, with the repeated exception of the clitic.

This construction, as mentioned above, is not restricted to translating nominalised participles alone; nominalised adverbial phrases undergo the same process of being rendered as RCs in Armenian. As before, the Greek article is translated as a RPro. The difference lies in the addition of a copula, which occurs in some but not all instances.

(18) Lk. 8:12

<i>ew</i>	<i>ork'</i>	<i>ař</i>	<i>čanaparhaw=n</i> ,	<i>aynok'ik</i>	<i>en</i> ,
and	Rel.Nom.Pl	by	path.Ins.Sg=Det	Dem.Nom.Pl	be.3.Pl.Prs
οἱ δὲ	παρὰ	τῇν	ὁδόν	εἰσιν	
<i>or</i>	<i>lsen=n</i>	...			
Rel.Nom.Sg	listen.3.Pl.Prs=Det				
οἱ	ἀκούοντες	...			

‘Those, who [are] by the wayside, they are the ones who listen.’

(19) Rev. 2:24

<i>ayl</i>	<i>jez</i>	<i>asem</i>	<i>ork'</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>t'iwatir</i>	<i>ēk'</i> ,	<i>ew</i>
but	2.Dat.Pl	say.1.Sg.Prs	Rel.Nom.Pl	in	Thyatira	be.2.Pl.Prs	and
<i>oč'</i>	<i>unik'</i>	<i>z=vardapetut'i(wn)=s</i>	<i>z=ays...</i>				
Neg	have.2.Pl.Prs	Obj=teaching.Acc.Sg=Det	Obj=Dem.Acc.Sg				

ὁμῖν δὲ λέγω καὶ λοιποῖς τοῖς ἐν Θυατείροις ὅσοι οὐκ ἔχουσιν τὴν διδαχὴν ταύτην

‘But I say to you, who are in Thyatira, and who have not adopted this teaching ...’

(Gk. ‘And I say to you, and to those left in Thyatira, who have not adopted this teaching...’)

Passage (18) reflects the most common constellation, in which the Greek phrase is rendered verbatim in Armenian; no copula or other elements are added.³⁵ It also bears witness to one of the more idiosyncratic elements of the language: the coexistence of two morphologically different forms *or* and *ork'* relativising on one and the same pivot, here

³⁵ This is reminiscent of the Iranian *ezāfe* construction; cf. BENVENISTE (1964:35), AJELLO (1973; 1997:251), DE LAMBERTERIE (2003:256). Yet, whether this type of relative clause is a native syntagma or indeed a borrowing from Iranian cannot be determined without an in-depth study, which is as yet lacking.

in a partly relative-correlative setting. JENSEN (1959) already notes that the nominative singular form is quite common in the plural, too, but it is striking that both should occur in the same sentence; whether the predicative usage of the second phrase may have caused its lack in number marking is unclear.

The less frequent occurrence, represented by example (19), is at the same time challenging in a few different respects.³⁶ The Greek phrase under consideration here is rendered faithfully in Armenian, with the addition of the copula *ēk'*; the fact that the second RC beginning with ὅσοι is integrated into the first may be due to simple economy. What is more unusual, given the general picture presented by the New Testament translation, is the non-adherence to the original not only in matters of word order, but also in meaning. The Greek differentiates two distinct groups of people, ὑμῖν and λοιποῖς, as indicated by the conjunction καί; the Armenian version, on the other hand, clearly does not follow suit. There is no indication of a conjunction between the first NP and a phrase functioning as the pivot of the relative. Furthermore, the form of the copula within the RC implies a second-person subject, and thus by extension the pivot. While the difference in form may not necessitate such a conclusion, the variance of meaning clearly indicates that the Greek original underlying this passage may have had a *varia lectio*; this, however, is not indicated in either the Armenian or Greek critical apparatus.

The rendition of Greek nominalised and attributively used DPs in Armenian is less straightforward than that of Greek RCs. The fact that the translators chose to render participial DPs as free RCs, which can be analysed as DPs with an embedded CP, shows both their understanding of grammar as well as their intention of strict textual adherence. Yet, the various ways in which such phrases are used necessitates an equally variable translation technique, so for example with correlatives as in (18) above. Those instances, in which alterations in the meaning of the original occur, are difficult to judge; they may be the result of different readings or of reinterpretations. The picture is further complicated by the occurrence of attraction in free RCs corresponding to Greek DPs.

³⁶ It further needs to be taken into account that the Book of Revelations is quoted most likely in the 12th century translation of Nersēs Lambronac'i, whereas earlier translations are extant but remain unpublished; cf. THOMSON (2007:2-10). Since no more problematic passages occur in Revelations than in other books, however, it has not been excluded from this survey.

Relative attraction in free RCs occurs also in those Armenian RCs which render Greek DPs; concerning its provenance, three explanations seem plausible. On the one hand, attraction of free RCs may be assumed to be a native feature of Armenian syntax, wherefore its occurrence in the RCs rendering Greek DPs is of no further note. On the other hand, the feature may be the result of, and initially restricted to, translations from the Greek DPs, the case of which was taken over in Armenian, and was later interpreted as m-case, thence spreading to other relative clauses in the New Testament. Thirdly, the developments could have occurred independently in the various categories.

In what follows, instances of attraction in free RCs translating Greek DPs will be considered for their contribution to the above question. It remains doubtful, however, whether a definitive answer can be extracted. The following passages demonstrate the different contexts in which this kind of attraction occurs.

(20) Mt. 5:42

<i>orum</i>	<i>xndrē</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>k'ēn,</i>	<i>tur,</i>	<i>ew</i>
Rel.Dat.Sg	ask.3.Sg.Prs	from	2.Abl.Sg	give.2.Sg.Aor.Impv	and
τῷ	αἰτοῦντί		σε	δός	καὶ
<i>or</i>	<i>kami</i>	<i>p'ox</i>		<i>aṛnul</i>	<i>i</i>
Rel.Nom.Sg	want.3.Sg.Prs	loan		take.Prs.Inf	from
τὸν	θέλοντα	ἀπὸ σοῦ δανείσασθαι			
<i>kēn,</i>	<i>mi</i>	<i>darjuc'aner</i>	<i>z=eres=s.</i>		
2.Abl.Sgg	Neg	turn.2.Sg.Prs.Impv	Obj=face.Acc.Sg=Det		
	μη	ἀποστραφῆς			

‘Give to him who asks you, and don’t turn your face from him who wants to take a loan from you.’

(21) Rom. 1:7

<i>amenec'un</i>	<i>oroc'</i>	<i>ēk'</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>Hṛovm</i>	<i>sireleac'</i>
all.Dat.Pl	Rel.Dat.Plg	be.2.Pl.Prsg	in	Rome	beloved.Dat.Pl
πᾶσιν	τοῖς	οὓσιν	ἐν	Ῥώμῃ	ἀγαπητοῖς
<i>a(stuco)y,</i>	<i>koč'ec'eloc'</i>	<i>srhoc'</i>	...		
God.Gen.Sg	call.Perf.Ptcp.Dat.Pl	holy.Dat.Pl			
θεοῦ,	κλητοῖς	ἁγίοις			

‘To you all who are in Rome, beloved by God, called [to be] Saints...’

The pattern occurring in passage (20) is quite common: the attracted pronoun stands in clause-initial position, taking the dative as the case of

the indirect object assigned by a verb in the main clause, *tur* ‘give!’. The second clause, too, reflects the morphological structure of the Greek in rendering τὸν θέλοντα as *or kami* ‘who wants’; the rendition of μὴ ἀποστραφῆς as *mi darjuc’aner z=eres=s* ‘don’t turn your face’, however, requires a different syntax in that it cannot take a further accusative; an expression with the ablative might be expected. Whether *or kami* reflects the accusative, or as an r-case RPro leaves a syntactic gap, is unclear.

(21) shows a similar pattern. While attraction proper does not always seem to be adopted in the Armenian New Testament, this instance of a (light-)headed RC once more demonstrates the close affinity of the Greek and Armenian texts, and is a good example of the Hellenising quality of the New Testament translation, in which the original wording has primacy as long as comprehensibility is not diminished.³⁷

It is evident that the direct correspondence of the Armenian RPro and the Greek determiner must be the origin of relative attraction in Armenian; this feature closely relates the New Testament translation with the *modus operandi* of the (pre-)Hellenising School. Judging from the data, esp. the relatively frequent occurrence of relative attraction in this type of Armenian relative clause (cp. §1.5, Table 3), it seems plausible to assume that they form the basis of this phenomenon in the New Testament; whether its occurrence in the other types of clauses is a direct result of this type, or whether it arose independently, remains unclear.

In addition to DPs, in which Greek article and participle collocations are translated into Armenian RCs, there are a number of instances in which attributive and predicative participles are rendered as RCs, as well;³⁸ this is particularly prevalent in forms of ἔχω. Even finite forms of this verb are frequently rendered as impersonal RCs (‘to whom there is’ rather than ‘he has’). These are, however, of little significance as far as RC syntax is concerned.

1.5 Table 2 represents the present dataset: the occurrences of each morphological form surveyed are grouped according to their presumed Greek origin as either arising from RCs, DPs with a participial phrase as complement (DP-Ptcp), DPs with an adverbial complement (DP-Adv), other attributively or predicatively used participles (Ptcp), or others.

³⁷ JENSEN (1959:210) cites a similar passage, Mk. 4:24.

³⁸ JINBACHIAN (1998:171) notes this behaviour in the translation of Genesis, too, but does not provide any information concerning other provenances of RCs in this text.

Form	RC	DP-Ptcp	Ptcp	DP-Adv	Other	Sum	Attr.
<i>z=or</i>	136	6	4	1	7	154	0
<i>y=or</i>	33	0	0	0	2	35	0
<i>oroy</i>	121	8	9	0	11	149	0
<i>z=oroy</i>	7	0	0	0	0	7	0
<i>y=oroy</i>	6	1	0	0	0	7	0
<i>orum</i>	55	11	2	0	18	86	1
<i>y=orum</i>	47	2	1	0	8	58	0
<i>y=ormē</i>	17	0	0	0	1	18	0
<i>z=ormē</i>	13	0	0	0	0	13	0
<i>orov</i>	62	1	0	0	3	66	0
<i>ork'</i>	72	64	10	9	12	167	0
<i>ors</i>	2	1	0	0	0	3	0
<i>y=ors</i>	18	0	0	0	2	20	0
<i>z=ors</i>	33	1	0	1	0	35	3
<i>oroc'</i>	57	23	4	4	5	93	20
<i>y=oroc'</i>	11	1	0	0	0	12	3
<i>z=oroc'</i>	8	0	0	0	0	8	0
<i>orovk'</i>	13	0	0	0	3	16	0
Total	711	119	30	15	72	947	27
%	75.1	12.5	3.2	1.6	7.6	100	2.9

Table 2 — Statistical Distribution of the Armenian Relative Pronoun

While the survey of this dataset yields a considerable amount of binary data as far as attraction phenomena are concerned, it presents a challenge to statistical analysis.

Fisher's Exact Test appears to be the most helpful statistical tool for this dataset.³⁹ It gives the exact likelihood of the obtaining of the Null-Hypothesis even for smaller datasets and does not assume any particular distribution; instead, it evaluates the independence of two or more observations in the same categories for their potential independence from each other based on the theory of hypergeometric distribution. The test will

³⁹ In recent years, Fisher's Exact Test has generally won favour in the field of corpus linguistics; STEFANOWITSCH AND GRIES (2003), amongst others, make a particularly strong point concerning its value and applicability.

thus yield a p-value indicating the probability that Armenian attraction phenomena are dependent on the Greek construction they render.

Table 3 shows the distribution of the feature ‘attraction’ among the five different syntactic structures which regularly yield Armenian RCs. The table, as presented, allows for the calculation of the probability in form of a p-value by means of Fisher’s Exact Test, and yields $p \approx 2.72 \times 10^{-18}$, which lies well below the generally agreed significance level of $p = 0.05$. The likelihood of obtaining such a dataset is, therefore, infinitesimal and the categories surveyed independent from each other in their occurrence. Thence may be tentatively concluded that the, admittedly few, occurrences of this attraction phenomenon are independent from each other, that is to say, its usage in RCs rendering DP-Ptcp is unrelated to that arising from RCs, etc. The translators’ decision to ‘attract’ is therefore likely to have been dependent on the individual case, and was, in all probability, not influenced by the particular construction used in Greek.⁴⁰ This does, however, not preclude the above-mentioned possibility that in Armenian itself, the feature may have spread from DP-Ptcps to the other categories, as its prevalence in that particular type may suggest.

	DP-Ptcp	RC	DP-Adv	Ptcp	Other	Total
Attr.	16	5	5	1	0	26
no Attr.	104	706	10	29	72	921
Total	119	711	15	30	72	947

Table 3 — Distribution of Relative Attraction in the Armenian New Testament

Apart from statistical considerations, two correlations stand out: attraction occurs only into four morphological cases (Dat./Loc.Sg., Acc.Pl. with nota accusativi, Gen./Dat.Pl. and Abl.Pl.); the occurrence of RCs translating Greek DP-Ptcps is particularly prevalent in the Nom.Pl and Gen./Dat.Pl.

The occurrence of attraction in these cases is due to a number of circumstances: other cases frequently occur in prepositional contexts; the contrast between Gen.Sg. and Gen.Pl. may thus lie in the fact that most of the Gen.Sg. occurrences are in the context of *vasn oroy* ‘wherefore’. In the Abl.Pl., attraction occurs in order to indicate the partitive function

⁴⁰ There are, however, two caveats to be kept in mind: firstly, in spite of the convincing statistical data, the test still only yields a probabilistic value; secondly, the expressive strength of this value is diminished by the small sample size.

of the original clause; similarly, that is true for the direct-object character of the Acc.Pl. and the indirect-object character of the Dat.Sg./Pl. The need for indicating the function of a phrase paired with the maxim of strictest possible adherence to the Greek original thus seems like a particularly strong conditioning factor for attraction, esp. in the DP-Ptcp category where the equation of Greek article and Armenian RPro seems natural at surface. Relative attraction in Armenian occurs in phrases with nominative r-case, too, namely when rendering Greek nominative DP-Ptcps. This feature, which does not occur in Greek, underlines the role of these phrases, and sets the phenomenon apart from its Greek counterpart, in which the nominative is not subject to attraction.

As for DP-Ptcps in said cases, it appears most plausible that they should arise due to the nature of the category: such articular participial phrases are commonly used for the description of groups or individuals, 'those doing x', wherefore a Nom.Pl. is a common case by default. The Gen./Dat.Pl. may be of such prevalence due to either its function as indirect object case, or as possessive/partitive marker. It stands to reason that the Acc.Pl. should be part of this group, and the lack of evidence thereof is puzzling; a larger dataset may have yielded more evenly distributed information.

1.6 The majority of the examples above speaks in favour of a syntactic bias of the translators in favour of Greek under the proviso that the sentence remain comprehensible.⁴¹ Most occurrences showed attraction of free RCs in which case matching restrictions do not apply. Whilst in a number of cases the argument could be advanced that the ungrammatical behaviour of RPros need not be motivated by Greek but is the result of an internal development, enough examples have been pointed out in which such an explanation is insufficient in that the motivation of these instances is best explained as directly rendering Greek morphology, and where contradictory syntagmata occur within the same sentence. This is further confirmed by the limited number of morphological cases in which such phenomena occur. The term 'relative attraction' should thus be used with care in the case of Armenian.

⁴¹ It is difficult to determine when a sentence becomes incomprehensible to a native speaker if the language in question is no longer spoken. Evidence from modern languages suggests, however, that a single error, e.g., in using an improper case, will not completely obfuscate intelligibility, as studies on Spanish (GUNTERMANN 1978:251-2) and Swedish (OLSSON 1972) have shown.

It has further been shown that, whilst infrequent, attraction phenomena occur in circumstances where m-case preservation is of semantic import and serves the purpose of discourse accessibility (see below §4).

Accordingly, the following mechanisms may be tentatively postulated:

- (a) a Greek RC is rendered as a RC in Armenian; case attraction phenomena are not generally retained from Greek, but in Armenian occur independently from the Greek. This category, as expected, constitutes the vast majority of cases (c. 75%).
- (b) the Armenian translation of a Greek nominalised participle or articular adverbial expression is frequently rendered as a RC; the Armenian pronoun's case is at times determined by the matrix clause; this type is the likely origin of case attraction in the Armenian New Testament, as it is the most frequent.
- (c) Armenian RCs further render some, but not all attributive and predicative participles in Greek, and are also found in variant readings and as glosses.

Adherence to the Greek original is, however, counterbalanced with concerns for proper native-language semantics; as stated above, the original Greek word order and case are frequently retained, except in those instances where the sentence would be rendered unintelligible. The style and method of the (pre-)Hellenising School is frequently recognizable in the sentences provided as examples, but varies more strongly in its application than it would in the School itself. It is obvious from the examples quoted and the data surveyed that this method of translation is mechanistic within reason, and that comparisons with the School can be made in questions of word order, case retention, and willingness to accept a certain amount of ungrammatical features. Whilst it seems unwarranted to envision both 'schools' of translation in a line of immediate succession or development, a relation is hard to deny.

2 The hypothesis that the occurrence of attraction in free RCs in Armenian is the result of Greek syntactic influence can only be verified by considering non-translated texts, i.e. those originally composed in Armenian. In order to minimise any diachronic interferences that might adversely influence this data comparison, three distinct texts by three different authors from approximately the same time period have been chosen as comparanda: Eznik Kołbac'i's *Vasn Astucoy* 'Concerning God', alternatively called *Etc Ałandoc* 'Against the Sects'; Elišē's *Vasn Vardanay ew Hayoc* 'Concerning Vardan and the Armenian War'; and

Agat‘angelos’ *Patmut‘iwn Hayoc‘* ‘History of the Armenians’, all of which can be dated to the 5th century CE.⁴² Their combined token incidence amounts to roughly the same as that of the New Testament and thus allows for a statistically meaningful and equilibrated comparison.

2.1 Table 4 lists the occurrences of RCs according to morphological form and text.

Form	Agat‘angelos	Eznik	Elišē
<i>z=or</i>	111	153	145
<i>y=or</i>	7	14	8
<i>oroy</i>	33	33	31
<i>z=oroy</i>	1	4	0
<i>y=oroy</i>	4	0	1
<i>orum</i>	12	23	37
<i>y=orum</i>	7	8	10
<i>z=ormē</i>	1	5	0
<i>y=ormē</i>	0	12	2
<i>orov</i>	17	31	11
<i>ork‘</i>	43	26	40
<i>ors</i>	0	1	1
<i>z=ors</i>	10	11	3
<i>y=ors</i>	0	3	2
<i>oroc‘</i>	17	26	19
<i>z=oroc‘</i>	2	6	1
<i>y=oroc‘</i>	4	6	2
<i>orovk‘</i>	1	8	0
TOTAL	270	370	313

Table 4 — Distribution of Relative Clauses in the Original Texts

⁴² The corpus thus covers a variety of genres (historiography, hagiography, philosophical writings) while still representing the same stage of the Armenian language. As so often in Armenian literature, critical editions are rare — only the work of Elišē is currently available as such (THOMSON 1993). For the controversy concerning the dating of Elišē, cf. §3.2. His work was chosen for this survey in order to accumulate a magnitude of tokens comparable to that of the New Testament; Koriwn’s *Life of Maštoc‘* may be more securely dated, but would not have yielded sufficient material.

In what follows will be discussed instances of peculiar case usage. It should be emphasized that these are not necessarily due to case attraction phenomena, as will become evident shortly; rather, the usage of the case in question is usually explicable on semantic or other syntactic grounds.

Before discussing these specific instances, however, one representative occurrence ought to demonstrate that the RC syntax commonly found in this corpus differs from that of the New Testament. Passage (22) contains a free RC with an expected Nom.Pl. r-case RPro.

(22) Et. Vardan 131

<i>ew</i>	<i>yandiman</i>	<i>xōsēr</i>	<i>t'agawor=n,</i>	<i>ork'</i>	<i>ēin</i>	<i>i</i>
and	in-front-of	say.3.Sg.Pst	king=Det	Rel.Nom.Pl	be.3.Pl.Pst	in
<i>tan=n</i>	<i>ark'uni,</i>	<i>et'ē</i>	...			
house.Loc.Sg=Det	royal	Comp				

‘And before [those] who were at the royal court, the king said that ...’

This instance is diametrically opposed to quite a number of those found in the New Testament, where the RPro of free RCs functioning as a sentential object or other adjunct would reflect this function in expressing m-case; in this instance, a Dat.Pl. *oroc'* would occur in that context. The fact that the RPro reflects the required r-case speaks in favour of supposing that both corpora do indeed adhere to different syntactic rules as far as RCs are concerned.

Furthermore, the occurrence of purely demonstrative oblique case pivots, which is all but inexistent in the New Testament, is quite regular in this corpus, as passage (23) witnesses.

(23) Ag. PH 9,13

<i>nok'a</i>	<i>z=merks</i>	<i>zgec'uc'anen,</i>	<i>ew</i>	<i>z=aynosik,</i>
3.Nom.Pl	Obj=naked.Acc.Pl	dress.3Pl.Prs	and	Obj=Dem.Acc.Pl
<i>ork'</i>	<i>melōk'=n</i>	<i>en</i>	<i>merkac'eal</i>	<i>əst</i>
Rel.Nom.Pl	sin.Ins.Pl=Det	be.3.Pl.Prs	undress.Perf.Ptcp	in
<i>nmanut'ean=n</i>	<i>Adamay,</i>	...		
likeness.Loc.Sg=Det	Adam.Gen.Sg			

‘They dress the naked, and those who through sins have become naked, in the likeness of Adam, ...’

Such instances are reminiscent, but of course not immediately related to, early Greek, where attraction is similarly inapplicable; light-headed or relative-correlative structures and free relatives with r-case morphology occur instead (cp. CHANTRAINE 1953:238-9; PROBERT 2015: ch. 7).

In what follows, representative examples of more unusual case employment will be discussed in order to determine whether they are the result of case attraction or other syntactic rules.

2.2 In Agat'angelos, the collocation *z=ōrinak* 'for example' always occurs without a finite verb, wherefore the case marking as accusative is unusual.

(24) Ag. PH 79,6

<i>zi</i>	<i>z=or</i>	<i>ōrinak</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>jeṛn</i>	<i>kusi=n</i>	
Comp	Obj=Rel.Acc.Sg	example	at	hand	woman*.Gen.Sg=Det	
<i>arajnoy</i>	<i>Ewayi</i>	<i>mah</i>	<i>emut</i>	<i>y=ašxarh</i>	...	
first.Gen.Sg	Eve.Gen.Sg	death	enter.3.Sg.Aor	into=world.Acc.Sg		
'For, as an example, at the hand of Eve, the first woman, death entered the world...'						

In all occurrences of this phrase, it presents in an elliptic form; the verb that has been suppressed must presumably be transitive, and is likely to express either an act of thinking or saying, such as *asem* 'I say, call', *karcem* 'I believe, think' or *unim* 'I hold, take', which would explain the accusative case and the nota accusativi. There are, however, no examples of a fuller phrase of the form *z=or ōrinak unim* 'which I take as an example', wherefore this explanation must remain speculative.⁴³ No other peculiarities occur in Agat'angelos as far as RC syntax is concerned.

2.3 In Elišē, there are only two instances in which the case of the RPro is of any note. In the first instance, ellipsis plays a significant role in that an avoided phrase repetition may be mistaken for an instance of attraction.

(25) El. Vardan 14

...	<i>orpēs</i>	<i>ew</i>	<i>tesanemk'</i>	<i>isk,</i>	<i>oč'</i>	<i>miayn</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>č'ap'awor</i>
	Comp	also	see.1.Pl.Prs	Int	Neg	only	in	poor
<i>mardik,</i>	<i>ayl</i>	<i>ew</i>	<i>y=or</i>		<i>mec=n</i>	<i>ē</i>		<i>k'an</i>
man.Acc.Sg	but	also	in=Rel.Nom.Sg		great=Det	be.3.Sg.Prs		than
<i>z=amenayn</i>								
Obj=all.Acc.Sg								

* [*koy*s signifie "vierge"; se dit aussi d'une personne de sexe masculin; cf. NBHL I, p.1114c, NDLR].

⁴³ Note, however, that in Modern Eastern Armenian, *ōrinak* has become a loose apposition (DUM-TRAGUT 2009:370); this is a cogent development from its classical predecessor, which is presumably similarly unbound, since, judging by its meaning, it indicates the sentence as a whole. ARMB (IV.618-9) derives *ōrinak* 'example, model' from a putative Parthian form /awdēnak/ 'manner, way'; it is therefore at least possible that the Armenian collocation reflects a Middle Iranian *ežāfe* construction.

‘... as we see not only in the moderate men, but even in (men), who are greater than all.’

In (25), the preposition *i/y* ‘in, into’ is used with the RPro, the latter of which is morphologically ambivalent and represents both Nom.Sg. and Acc.Sg. An accusative reading would, however, necessitate that attraction of free RCs were applied since the RPro needs to fulfil the subject function in the subordinate clause. In this instance, however, the preceding accusative NP *č‘ap‘awor mardik* ‘moderate men’, which is dependent on the same preposition *i*, suggests that instead of attraction, the form of the RPro is due, once again, to ellipsis. The clause would then read:

(26) Et. Vardan 14*

†...	<i>i</i>	<i>č‘ap‘awor</i>	<i>mardik,</i>	<i>ew</i>	<i>ayl</i>	<i>i</i>	Ø	<i>or</i>
	in	moderate	man.Acc _i	but	also	in	[e] _i	Rel.Nom.Sg
<i>mec=n</i>	<i>ē</i>		<i>k‘an</i>	<i>z=amenayn</i>				
great=Det	be.3.Sg.Prs	than	Obj=all.Acc.Sg					

This is a common phenomenon in a number of languages,⁴⁴ and allows for phrases, or parts thereof, to be omitted if they are also a constituent of a preceding or following clause. In this instance, both co-ordinated clauses contain a PP with a head *i*, whose complement is an NP *č‘ap‘awor mardik* in the first clause. In the second clause, this NP is partly ellipsed; consisting of head N and a modifier AdjP, it is only the head *mardik* that is reflected by the gap, whereas the RC takes the function of the modifier.⁴⁵ Therefore, (25) is best explained along these lines and not as relative attraction.

The second unusual passage in Elišē documents a particular sort of RC, which is not uncommon in Armenian, and largely absent from the New Testament variety, but occurs widely in other Indo-European languages such as Vedic and Latin.

(27) Et. Vardan 33

<i>ew</i>	<i>oroy</i>	<i>astucoy</i>	<i>ararack‘=n</i>	<i>apakanelik‘</i>
and	Rel.Gen.Sg	God.Gen.Sg	creature.Nom.Pl=Det	corruptible.Nom.Pl
<i>en</i>	<i>ew</i>	<i>et‘canelik‘,</i>	<i>nma</i>	<i>anet‘</i>
be.3.Pl.Prs	and	destructible.Nom.Pl	Dem.Dat.Sg	indestructible

⁴⁴ Taking ellipsis as a covering term, there are a great variety of such reduction phenomena, all of which have more specific definitions. For an example of VP ellipsis, also called gapping, cp. e.g. Lat. *Gallos ab Aquitanis Garunna flumen Ø, a Belgis Matrona et Sequana dividit* (Caesar *De Bello Gallico* 1.1.2); also cf. PANHUIS (1980).

⁴⁵ This is a common mechanism, so found also in Modern Armenian, cp. DUM-TRAGUT (2009:421-3) as well as in e.g. NHG *Peter kaufte das blaue Buch, und Karl das Ø, welches ihm gefiel*.

<i>Astuac</i>	<i>č' = mart'i</i>	<i>asel</i>
God.Nom.Sg	Neg=be-possible.3.Sg.Prs	say.Prs.Inf

'Which god's creatures are corruptible and destructible, him one cannot call an indestructible god.'

Passage (27) contains a relative-correlative clause; the preposed RC, introduced by the expected r-case RPro *orov*, is 'picked up' by the correlative pronoun *nma* in the matrix clause. Instead of a pivot proper, the RC contains a pseudo-pivot, viz. *astucoy* 'of god', which agrees in case and number with the RPro, but occurs within the RC.⁴⁶ Since the RPro shows r-case, this is not an instance of relative attraction; instead, RPro and pseudo-pivot are part of the same constituent phrase. Equally, it is not necessary or helpful to speak of *attractio inversa*, since, on the one hand, *astucoy* is the expected morphological form for both the dative, as required by the matrix clause, and the genitive in agreement with the RPro; on the other hand, because *attractio inversa* usually requires the 'attracted' pivot of the RC to precede.⁴⁷ As with Agat'angelos above, there are no instances of attraction or m-case RCs to be found in Elišē.

2.4 In Eznik, RPros occur in unusual cases in the following morphological categories: Acc.Sg. with preposition *y=*; Dat./Loc.Sg.; Abl.Pl. with preposition *y=*; Gen./Dat.Pl. In the first three categories, the case of the RPro is the result of a construction *kamim* 'I wish, want' + infinitive; the irregular occurrences of the Gen./Dat.Pl. have a different background.

The verb *kamim* may take as its complement either a direct object or VP with an infinitive head (NBHL I:1042). In passages (28), however, neither of these complements occur.

(28) Ez. VA 130

<i>ayl</i>	<i>orpēs</i>	<i>mardoy</i>	<i>č' = ē</i>	<i>hnar</i>	<i>p'oxel</i>
but	as	man.Dat.Sg.	Neg=be.3.Sg.Prs	possible	change.Prs.Inf
<i>i</i>	<i>kerparans</i>	<i>inč'</i>	<i>y = or</i>	<i>ew</i>	<i>kamic'i,</i>
into	form.Acc.Pl	Indf	into=Rel.Acc.Sg	Int	want.3.Sg.Prs.Subj

⁴⁶ cp. e.g. Lat. *Quibus diebus Cumae liberatae sunt obsidione, isdem diebus ... Tib. Sempronius ... prospere pignat.* (Livius *Ab urbe condita* 23.37,10); for a formal account, which sensibly rejects the descriptive analysis as apposition or adjunct, cf. BIANCHI (2000:54-8).

⁴⁷ cp. e.g. Lat. *Mulier quae se suamque aetatem spernit, speculo ei usus est*, lit. 'A woman, who is dissatisfied with her age, to her a mirror is a necessity', where the head *mulier* takes r-case, although the m-case, here indicated by the resumptive pronoun *ei*, differs.

noynpēs *oč'* *višapi=n.*

thus Neg dragon.Dat.Sg=Det

‘But just as man cannot change into some form into which he wishes [to change], neither can the dragon.’

In this passage, the RC is partly elliptic in that the expected infinitive does not occur. The infinitive occurs as a regular constituent of the matrix clause; the preposition *i/y=* is used with the pivot and the RPro, and thus presumably renders a repetition of the verb in its infinitival form unnecessary. In light of the semantic restrictedness of this particular instance of ‘attraction’ to the verb *kamim*, it seems reasonable to advocate ellipsis as a more straightforward explanation, particularly in combination with the evidence from other languages.⁴⁸

A different situation presents itself for some occurrences in the Gen.Pl.; here, it is the occurrence of prepositions such as *and* + Gen. ‘in exchange for’ which is problematic.

(29) Ez. VA 49

na ew *z=mardoy* *y=irawi,* *asemk'*,
also concerning=man.Abl.Sg in=justice.Loc.Sg say.1.Pl.Prs

krel *patuhas* *and oroc'* *gorcic'ē.*
endure.Prs.Inf punishment.Acc.Sg for Rel.Gen.Pl work.3.Sg.Prs.Subj

‘We also say about man that he justly endures the punishment for (the deeds) which he has done.’

The entry for *gorcem* in NBHL (I:556) lists, among others, a collocation with *and*, meaning ‘to work for something’. This, however, is unlikely to help the correct grammatical understanding of the passage: firstly, because a translation ‘punishment for which he worked’ seems rather unfortunate; secondly due to the disagreement of pivot and RPro in number. Supposing that, as in Greek, prepositions need to be followed by a dependent in the case they govern, it would appear that in this instance attraction of a free

⁴⁸ cp. Gk. ‘ἀλλὰ μέντοι καὶ τὸ προειδέναι γε τὸν θεὸν τὸ μέλλον καὶ τὸ προσημαίνειν ὃ ὅθι βούλεται, ...’, ‘But more than that, in regard to God’s foreknowledge of the future and his forewarning thereof to whomsoever he will’ (Xenophon *Apology* 13), NE *He spoke to whom he wanted* $\emptyset$ or NHG *Er sprach mit wem er $\emptyset$ wollte*, where a similar ellipsis occurs; note that in neither of these languages, proper attraction or attraction of free RCs are grammatical, e.g. NE *I kissed *whom/*to whom I spoke*, NHG *I küsste *wen/*mit wem ich sprach*; for a definition of ellipsis in general, cf. LOBECK (1995:20-8). Note that as opposed to co-ordination reduction and gapping (cf. GAETA AND LURAGHI 2001 for details on Greek), which occur in co-ordinated clauses, ellipsis does not require the ellipsed V(P) to occur in the same grammatical form or function as the original; as DALRYMPLE (2005) and KEHLER (2000) show, this type of ellipsis must therefore be semantically rather than syntactically licensed.

RC may be the best explanation for the occurrence of this particular case form, as indeed it is for two other passages, Ez. VA 44 and 51.⁴⁹ All other instances of unusual cases may be explained along the same lines as have been outlined above.

Since the occurrence of m-case in Eznik is restricted to a limited set of parallel expressions containing a preposition, a RPro and a single 3.Sg. Aor. verb, the collocation may be formulaic. A similar wording occurs in a *varia lectio* of 2Cor. 5:10, where the common version reads as follows:

(30) 2Cor. 5:10

<i>zi</i>	<i>analc'i</i>	<i>iwrak'anč'iwr</i>	<i>iwrov</i>	<i>marmnov</i> ,
Comp	receive.3.Sg.Aor.Subj	each	3.Poss.Ins.Sg	body.Ins.Sg.
ἵνα	κομίσσεται	ἐκαστος	τὰ διὰ	τοῦ σώματος
<i>z=or</i>	<i>inč'</i>	<i>gorceac'</i>		
Obj+Rel.Acc.Sg	Indf	do.3.Sg.Aor.Ind		
πρὸς ᾧ	ἔπραξεν			
'... so that each may receive (the things done) by his body, which he has done ...'				

A different version⁵⁰ suggests a reading *iwrak'anč'iwr ast oroc' gorceac'n iwrov marmnov*, in which a structure similar to that in Eznik occurs; neither version renders the Greek precisely. It ought to be mentioned, however, that there is no thematic relation between the two passages, and that, according to Orenko (1996), the passages in question are not direct quotations; it is possible, however, that the passages containing this aberrant syntax are quotations from texts as yet unidentified or lost.

In view of Eznik's role as one of the translators of the New Testament, and potentially also due to the topic of the *Étc Ałandoc'* and his long residence in the Greek-speaking world,⁵¹ it may not be surprising that

⁴⁹ For Greek, FÖRSTER (1868:30) states: 'Clarissima est haec res in eo vocabulorum genere quod nunquam per se poni potest, in praepositionibus: quae si non nomen substantivum, sed enuntiationem rel. regunt, semper cogunt pronomen rel. ut induat casum eum quem ipsae poscunt'; further cf. MAY (1878:12-4).

⁵⁰ Presumably a closer translation of the Greek as suggested by its prefixation with *Yoyyn.*; its source could not be identified.

⁵¹ Eznik sets out to argue against a multitude of different understandings of God, in the form of both other religions and Christian 'heresies', esp. the teachings of Marcion of Sinope (ORENKO 1996:13-5); the topic is thus in nature relatively close to biblical matters, although styles vary vastly. Given his extended exposure to a foreign language, the influence of L2 proficiency on L1 usage may be of interest; on this, cf. SCHMID AND KÖPKE (2007:3-4), KÖPKE AND SCHMID (2004:17-8), PAVLENKO (2004:50-2).

certain elements of biblical language should have found their way into his idiolect. Still, at only three occurrences, it seems unlikely that this should have been a regular feature of Armenian syntax.

2.5 In the classical authors, then, only very few instances were found to show attraction of free RCs. The occurrences pertain to the writing of a single author, who was one of the translators of the New Testament, and are dependent on prepositions in the matrix clause. Alternatively, it is possible that the regular appearance of free RCs with *r*-case morphology, as demonstrated by (22) above, is overruled by the requirement of prepositions to govern the 'right' case. Due to the restricted occurrence of this phenomenon in one author, and its comparatively small incidence in a corpus of RCs of roughly the same magnitude as that of the New Testament, no further argument in favour of either explanation can be advanced at this time. For the same reasons, however, it is plausible to deduce that attraction phenomena are not an inherited feature of Armenian syntax. As suggested in §1.6 above, they are likely to have arisen in the process of the translation of the New Testament. Whether attraction first occurred in the rendering of Greek DPs into Armenian still cannot be determined, since the New Testament corpus cannot be chronologically stratified securely.

The implications of this disparity between New Testament and original Armenian are diverse. Primarily, it is now evident that the influence of Greek syntax on early, 'Classical' Armenian was both greater than historically presumed, while at the same time restricted to translation contexts. Further, it adds substance to the challenges of the assumption that the Hellenising School arose only in the late 5th or early 6th century CE; while it would be overstating the matter to call the Armenian New Testament a product of this School, it may well be seen as part of the greater continuum. Accordingly, the data agree with Cowe (1994-5:129) in calling into doubt the general practice of using the New Testament as a basic corpus in Armenian historical linguistics.

3 Recalling briefly what has been written about the Hellenising School, Níchanian memorably summarised that it '*ne servai pas à transmettre le sens, mais à transmettre la lettre*' (1989:135). Adontz in his edition of the Armenian version of the *τέχνη γραμματική* attributed to Dionysius Thrax rightly goes so far as to say that due to the strict adherence to Greek lexicon, syntax, and the calquing or morphological structures, works of the School are immediately recognisable and even allow for reconstructions of the Greek original (1970:CLXX).

3.1 Literary scholars and language historicans have long been attempting a stratification, localisation, and proper dating of the various Hellenising pieces, but in the process have encountered a plethora of issues. As MANANDYAN (1928:87) puts it in his seminal, if hardly self-consistent monograph:

Č'unenalov drakan u čšgrit telekut'iwnner sranc' meknut'iwnneri hay t'argmanič'neri masin, hay banasirut'iwnneri ankarot ē gtnuel orošelu óč' miayn ayd erkeri t'argmanman čišd taret'iwə, ayl angam darašrjanə.

Traditionally, the School is said to have been active in three or four distinct stages,⁵² commencing with the translation of either the aforementioned τέχνη γραμματική, potentially from the late 5th century, or the *Refutation of the Council of Chalcedon* in the 6th century, and ending with the work of Step'anos Siwnec'i in the beginning of the 8th century.⁵³ These stages originate with MANANDYAN (1928), whose reasons for categorising texts are largely restricted to their way of rendering Greek compounds and consistency in doing so.⁵⁴ Since then, however, the evaluation of Hellenising texts has been augmented to take into account other aspects of language, such as word order and other syntactic matters, too.⁵⁵ A further point is of particular interest: mediaeval Armenian commentators were often puzzled at the incomprehensibility of these translations, since many compounds and syntagmata were meaningless to the reader due to calquing of morphological and syntactic structures (TERIAN 1980:201).

⁵² MANANDEAN (1928:111-7) initially suggested three different stages, differing in the extent to which Greek compounds are rendered uniformly throughout the text; later scholars have added a fourth and final stage (TERIAN 1982:175-6; MURADYAN 2012:9). For a different perspective, see below §3.2.

⁵³ The Hellenising School has yielded a large amount of lexical material still used in Modern Armenian (CALZOLARI 1989:124); its methodology has similarly been adopted in later centuries by writers invested in an erudite, and thus Hellenising style (e.g. Grigor Magistros Pahlawuni, c. 990-1059; cf. TERIAN 1982:183; TERIAN AND SANJIAN 1985:85, 91-3). Similar calquing patterns continue to produce morpheme-by-morpheme calques in the modern language, e.g., under Soviet influence, on the basis of Russian as noted by COWE (1992a:335).

⁵⁴ Traditionally, earlier texts produced by the School tend to contain a mixture of calqued terminology and native terms representing the same word in the Greek original, whilst later translations have a more rigid system of correspondence with less variation. The τέχνη γραμματική (ADONTZ 1970), for example, renders συλλαβή variably as *vang*, *p'atařut'iwn* (9.16-18) and *šatašar* (11.8), where no semantic distinction in the Greek or Armenian can be made; cf. CLACKSON (1995:122-30), TERIAN (1980:198; 1981:10-13).

⁵⁵ In the most recent study on the subject, MURADYAN notes the lack of systematic studies concerning the syntax of these translations (2012:16), and thus sets out to provide a comprehensive overview herself; approximately half of her work is dedicated to various syntactic peculiarities (2012:125-90).

Therefore, it has been argued, that those texts, which ‘maintain not only the word order of the Greek, but also the form of Greek compounds and other grammatical structures’ (TERIAN 1980:197), were not meant as translations as much as *aides-memoires* or cribs for Armenian students of the *trivium* or *quadrivium* (TERIAN 1982:183-4; CALZOLARI 1989:110, 128); they were not meant to be used by themselves but in combination with the Greek original. This further explains why only selected pieces and no complete *œuvres* were translated (TERIAN 1980:198; 1982:183).

3.2 The views concerning stratification outlined above are, however, not uncontested: Terian (1982:176) and before him Akinian (1932) have argued that the first three traditionally recognised groups of texts may have been produced by the same collective of authors, potentially in one generation. Further inconsistencies arise when considering the trends of lexicomorphological fidelity on the one hand, and adherence to Greek syntax on the other: the former, so it would seem, increases over time, as described above, whereas the renditions become freer in terms of syntax (TERIAN 1982:176). ADONTZ (1970:CLXXII) makes a further important point: the particular style of the translation depends not on any particular timeframe or translator, but rather on the type of text translated; complex philosophical or scientific texts are usually rendered more literally than their theological or otherwise religious counterparts.⁵⁶ COULIE (1994:43) sums up the status of research in this particular field quite succinctly:

‘Aujourd’hui, plusieurs des résultats obtenus révèlent des contradictions que les critères traditionnels ne permettent pas de résoudre: des grécismes lexicaux et syntaxiques sont présents déjà dans les versions de l’époque classique, des formations jugées caractéristiques des traductions pré-hellénophiles se trouvent encore dans les productions purement hellénophiles’.

In addition to the uncertainty regarding relative and internal chronology, it is extremely difficult to determine the absolute chronology of the School’s existence, too. As COULIE hints, a significant amount of Hellenising features occurs already in very early texts not commonly associated with the School. Furthermore, certain intertextual relations suggest that at least some translations must have been produced in the 5th century

⁵⁶ Yet this is, to a certain extent, at odds with the tradition of Biblical translations, both Armenian and otherwise, and certainly the maxim of St Jerome, the translator of the Vulgate: ‘Ego enim non solum fateor, sed libera voce profiteor, me in interpretatione Graecorum, absque Scripturis sanctis, ubi et verborum ordo mysterium est, non verbum e verbo, sed sensum exprimere de sensu’ (Epistula LVII. *Ad Pammachium De Optimo Genere Interpretandi*, MIGNE 1857-66:571; italics added).

already: a number of direct quotations from the translations of the works of Philo occur already in Elišē's *Vasn Vardanay ew Hayoc' paterazmi*, dated by some to the last quarter of the 5th century (TERIAN 1982:177); it has also been argued that the translation of Dionysios Thrax' grammar may stem from the 5th century (JAHUKYAN 1954:50-3; MURADYAN 1971: 104-11). Both of these early datings, however, have been contested: AKINIAN (1932) argues for a later date of Elišē's work, largely in order to date the Philonic translations to a later point. This is convincingly refuted by THOMSON (1993:14-5), who calls the former's argument 'arbitrary'.⁵⁷ As for the dating of the translation of the τέχνη γραμματική, which ADONTZ considers impossible (1970:CXII), MERCIER (1978:59-61) and INGLISIAN (1963:163) prefer a later date, but produce no convincing argument in favour of this preference.⁵⁸

MURADYAN, whose introduction to her study of Grecisms in Classical Armenian comprises the most up-to-date and comprehensive discussion of the extant literature and opinions available, agrees with the 5th-century hypothesis (2012:3), without, however, giving any specific reason. She furthermore agrees with COULIE's assertion that next to the Hellenising School, which is signified mainly by its lexical and morphological imitation of the Greek originals, a pre-Hellenising School must have existed, in which word-calquing was less widespread, but syntactical correspondences more numerous (MURADYAN 2012:20; LAFONTAINE AND COULIE 1983:123-30).⁵⁹

This view is now further corroborated by the fact that even on a syntactic level, the 'Classical' Armenian of the Bible translation is not free from Greek influence; since translated and original texts obey different constraints at least as far as the case syntax of Greek RCs is concerned, it seems plausible to argue in favour of a literary and historical analysis which does not differentiate strata or eras whose features are unclearly defined and full of exceptions, but one which advocates a continuum approach in which the plethora of features mentioned above is 'accessible'

⁵⁷ At the same time, it is noteworthy that THOMSON (1982) argued for a post-5th century date for Elišē's work, relying largely on parallels with the *Ecclesiastical History* of John of Ephesus. Nonetheless, no decisive argument for either an early or late dating of Elišē has been provided to date, and the debate remains unresolved.

⁵⁸ MERCIER bases his judgement on relative chronology, having established that the *Refutation of the Council of Chalcedon* should have been translated before the Second Council of Duin in 555; the argument does not go beyond that, and remains weak.

⁵⁹ As contrastive examples may be taken the above-cited translation of Dionysius Thrax (ADONTZ 1970) and Basil of Caesarea's *Book of Questions* (ULUHOGIAN 1993), the latter of which belongs to the pre-Hellenising School.

as required by genre and purpose of the translation; a philosophical text meant for students, for example, may need to be translated in a manner closer to the original, and thus more ‘slavishly’, than a religious text meant for the general public, where accessibility and comprehensibility are of greater importance than textual fidelity.

4 On a linguistic level, the implications of the above are similarly interesting. While the different types of RCs discussed above are partly subject to different syntactic constraints and, to a certain extent, may reflect different sentence structures,⁶⁰ it is still clear that they belong to the same spectrum of semantic and syntactic operations, each type fitting specific requirements that others cannot fulfil.⁶¹ In all instances, however, the relativisation strategy is the same. Yet, in Classical Armenian as in Classical Greek and other languages, there are instances which do not fit into the general pattern: in certain RCs the case coding of the RPro does not reflect relative clause (r-case), but rather matrix clause (m-case) syntax.

4.1 This case attraction phenomenon occurs both in headed and free RCs in Classical Greek, but under slightly different constraints, respectively. The phenomenon has been the topic of research since at least the middle of the 19th century, during which a number of doctoral dissertations relating to its occurrence in various authors were submitted (e.g. FÖRSTER 1868; May 1878). In more recent history, HIRSCHBÜHLER (1977; 1979) has occupied himself with this phenomenon and come to interesting conclusions.⁶² He notes that in headed RCs, accusative RPros are optionally, but regularly attracted into the case of their pivot (m-case), if the latter is in the genitive or dative. In free RCs, however, these constraints are less strict and also allow for attraction into the genitive or dative, as required by matrix clause syntax, if the RPro is expected to show neuter nominative, accusative, or

⁶⁰ Both relative attraction and free RCs pose certain difficulties for syntactic analysis, as shown e.g. in BIANCHI (2000:58-9). In the analysis of the latter, the two competing analyses interpret the relative pronoun as either in complementiser position, or as the head of the RC; HIRSCHBÜHLER (1977:188-9, 212) argues that, at least for French and Classical Greek, the complementiser hypothesis is to be preferred, as matching phenomena do not apply, and RCs with pseudo-pivot are found. The head hypothesis, as posited by GRIMSHAW (1977), cannot account for certain free RCs in e.g. Dutch and German, as demonstrated by GROOS AND VAN RIEMSDIJK (1981:173-94). The complementiser hypothesis has since been refined by HIRSCHBÜHLER AND RIVERO (1981; 1983), GROSU (1994) and others.

⁶¹ Languages in which matching effects obtain usually require a method to express what in Classical Greek can be achieved by free RCs, for instance light-headed RCs.

⁶² For a recent and comprehensive discussion, see PROBERT (2015).

dative morphology.⁶³ HIRSCHBÜHLER (1977:194-5) rejects QUICOLI's idea (1972:205) that attraction in headless RCs is transformationally related to that in headed RCs,⁶⁴ since the former show a different pattern. GROSU (1994:108) has extrapolated the following case hierarchy, in which any case lower in the hierarchy may be attracted into a higher one:⁶⁵

(31) Nom < Acc < Dat < Gen < ... < Pronominal-Case

The paradigms noted by HIRSCHBÜHLER fit this scheme neatly, if posing the question why the headed setting is more restrictive than its headless counterpart. This question has not been answered in any definite way yet, nor indeed has the question why exactly this should be the case hierarchy applying to attraction phenomena.

On the latter topic, GRIMM suggests that attraction occurs in instances where the attracted pronoun is inherently less agentive than its pivot, and that a case hierarchy is only the surface manifestation of a more intricate lattice, motivated by various semantic factors such as instigation, motion, sentience, and volition, all of which form part of the agentivity concept (2007:142, 145-7). GRIMM's results happen to align with the data, but hardly provide a cogent explanation for the case hierarchy.

Firstly, it ought to be noted that the intrinsic relationship between agentivity and relativisation is not immediately obvious; secondly, his assignment of the various properties named above to the morphological cases in question seems, of not arbitrary, at least unwarranted in certain instances.⁶⁶ It further seems unusual that such a distinction should be made in relation to RCs, but in no other grammatical category. Finally, GRIMM's model neither predicts nor accounts for the different distribution of case attraction in headed and free RCs.

4.2 A different explanation may be sought in comparing (31) with the noun phrase accessibility hierarchy as argued for by KEENAN AND COMRIE (1977), who on the basis of data from 50 languages postulate that in any

⁶³ GRIMM (2007:141) provides a table showing the different combinations of pivot and relative pronoun in which case attraction occurs; further cf. HIRSCHBÜHLER (1977:203).

⁶⁴ QUICOLI suggests that these clauses have a pronominal head which is deleted after the attraction process.

⁶⁵ The non-neuter nominative, at least in Greek, is an exception and not attracted; this restriction does not apply to Armenian.

⁶⁶ GRIMM (2007:146-7) elucidates the mapping of Greek cases on his agentivity lattice; apart from the generally questionable relation of the lattice features and RC structure, his explanation of the genitive as the most agentive case due to its features of sentience, instigation and total persistence are unconvincing, esp. since the nominative itself is never mentioned or given a place in the lattice.

given language, if a position in a sentence can be relativized, all those higher in the hierarchy can be relativised as well (1977:66; pattern adjusted).

- (32) Subject < Direct Object < Indirect Object < Oblique < Genitive < Object of Comparison

Thus, for instance, the fact that in English the genitive or possessor can be relativised entails that subject, direct object, etc., can be relativised, too; objects of comparison, however, do not fall within this remit, and indeed grammaticality judgments vary concerning their status in relativisation contexts. Comparing the two hierarchies of GROSU (31) and KEENAN AND COMRIE (32), it is noticeable that one can be mapped on the other in that subject function is fulfilled in Greek by the nominative, the direct object function by the accusative, etc. Thence follows that attraction phenomena may be described as the ‘attraction’ of the more accessible case into the less accessible case, e.g., accusative into the genitive. Although the conditioning of attraction phenomena is still understood imperfectly and thus appears optional, it is still extremely common, wherefore it may be sensible to speak of the pronoun as tending towards the maximally inaccessible case.⁶⁷

It may, in turn, however be worthgiving the hierarchy a secondary function as concerns discourse accessibility. An example will illustrate this:

- (33) Lk. 23:41

καὶ ἡμεῖς μὲν δικαίως ἄξια γὰρ ὧν ἐπράξαμεν ἀπολαμβάνομεν ...
[... τούτων ἄ ...]

‘And we justly receive (a reward) worthy of what we have done ...’

In (33), the expected accusative as required by the RC predicate is rendered as genitive dependent on the matrix clause constituent ἄξια; the direct object case is here attracted into the less accessible genitive.

The example shows clearly that failing to attract in free RCs has the potential to render the sentence incomprehensible or change its meaning (unless supplemented with a pronominal head); attraction, at least in free RCs, serves the purpose of expressing less readily deducible grammatical relations, viz. those lower in the accessibility hierarchy. If, for instance, the RPro in (33) were in the accusative rather than the genitive, the sentence would have a different meaning.

⁶⁷ This, however, remains an abstraction; attraction is still constrained by morphological case rather than by syntactic role.

(34) Lk. 23:41*

† καὶ ἡμεῖς μὲν δικαίως ἄξια γὰρ ἃ ἐπράξαμεν ἀπολαμβάνομεν...

‘And we justly receive the worthy things which we have done.’

For this reason, ascribing a secondary, discourse role to KEENAN AND COMRIE’s accessibility hierarchy seems warranted in this context, and more immediately connected to the issue than GRIMM’s agentivity approach.

As has been mentioned above, the application of attraction structures is non-obligatory in both Biblical Armenian and Classical Greek; it is to be noted, however, that in Classical Armenian, this phenomenon is absent, and that in Biblical Armenian the pattern suggested by the discourse accessibility hierarchy is secondary to a close adherence to the Greek original, wherefore it is likely that the attraction of free RCs is based on the Greek; it remains unclear whether, as suggested, its frequent, but not absolute application serves easier comprehensibility of translated texts, or was just a byproduct of faithful but, to some extent, mechanic translation.

5 All this data, together with the evident parallels in word order frequently indicated in the glosses, allow for the conclusion that the Armenian New Testament, and thus by extension the entirety of the Bible, is far closer to its Greek *Vorlage* than is commonly presumed. This gravely impacts the accepted views concerning both the stratification of the development of the Armenian language, as well as the those concerning the (pre-)Hellenising School and the onset of this particular method of translating into Armenian. As has been argued above, the Bible translation differs from the School in just as many respects as it is similar to it, and for that reason cannot be called its predecessor; at the same time, taking into account the so-called pre-Hellenising School, this literary tradition is best conceptualised as a continuum, spanning from the beginning of the Armenian literary tradition in the early 5th century up to Step‘anos Siwnec‘i in the 8th century, or potentially even further to Grigor Magistros in the 11th century. The exponents of this style of translation vary in the degree to which they adhere to the Greek original, but usually either strictly follow Greek syntax and word order strictly, as is the case for the New Testament and the pre-Hellenising School, or use the Greek lexical material as the basis for calquing.

The relevance of this observation for determining what is ‘Classical’ Armenian is obvious: if the language of the Bible, so often taken as the pinnacle of Armenian style and simultaneously as the basis for linguistic study, is essentially dependent on Greek syntax and ostensibly contravenes

syntactic rules applying to original, non-translated text, it is not actually a fitting representation of 'native' 5th-century Armenian. Due to its vast cultural and literary influence, it cannot be neglected, and deserves its role in chrestomathies and textbooks; yet, literature originally composed in Armenian, and thus much less directly influenced by Greek, is a far better representation of Classical Armenian proper, and should therefore be accepted as such.

WEITENBERG's assessment (1993) that a thorough understanding of the development of Armenian ought to be gained through the comparison of syntactic features from the various stages, must be expanded to include not only Armenian evidence, but also that of Greek in the context of the early attested stages of the language, or of Middle Iranian for the study of its prehistory. This study does not purport to prove the significance of the Greek original for the Bible translation, nor to overthrow the views developed over the last century of scholarship. It merely suggests alternative perspectives providing different, and in certain respects more cogent explanations to questions in the field of Armenian historical linguistics, and hopes to have demonstrated the relevance of considering syntactic features on both a cross-linguistic and historical level. Confirmation of some of the arguments put forward here must be sought in further, more extensive studies of, e.g., the word order correspondence between the Greek and Armenian Bible, as well as in the more detailed exploration of the conditioning environments of clitics in relative clauses. Only such large-scale investigations can provide a definitive answer to the question of 'Classical' Armenian.

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